

Indian Traditions, Culture and Society

- India is a diverse country with a rich and varied heritage of culture and traditions. It is home to many religions, languages, ethnic groups, and customs that have influenced its social and political life for centuries.
- Some of the main aspects of Indian culture and society are:
 - **Religion:** India is the birthplace of four major religions: Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, and Sikhism. It also has a large population of Muslims, Christians, Sikhs, Parsis, Jews, and other faiths. Religion plays a vital role in shaping the values, beliefs, practices, and festivals of Indians. Some of the common religious symbols and rituals in India are the swastika, the lotus, the cow, the Ganges, the bindi, the tilak, the namaste, the aarti, the puja, the prasad, the mantra, the yoga, the meditation, the karma, the dharma, the samsara, the moksha, the nirvana, the ahimsa, the satyagraha, the gurudwara, the mosque, the church, the temple, the stupa, the pagoda, the synagogue, the fire temple, etc.
 - **Family:** India has a strong preference for extended families, consisting of two or more married couples (often of more than a single generation), who share finances and a common kitchen. The family is the most important social unit in India, and it provides support, guidance, and protection to its members. The family is also the source of one's identity, status, and honor in society. The family is usually patriarchal, with the eldest male as the head and decision-maker. The family is also patrilineal, with the inheritance and succession passing through the male line. The family is also patrilocal, with the bride moving to the groom's house after marriage. The family is also endogamous, with the preference for marrying within one's caste, community, or religion. The family is also hierarchical, with the respect and obedience given to the elders and the authority and responsibility given to the younger ones. The family is also collectivistic, with the emphasis on the welfare and harmony of the group over the individual. The family is also the source of many customs and traditions, such as the joint family system, the arranged marriage, the dowry, the bride price, the wedding ceremony, the rites of passage, the festivals, the rituals, the ceremonies, the celebrations, the mourning, the ancestor worship, etc.
 - **Language:** India has 22 official languages and hundreds of regional and local languages and dialects. The most widely spoken languages are Hindi, Bengali, Telugu, Marathi, Tamil, Urdu, Gujarati, Kannada, Malayalam, Odia, Punjabi, and Assamese. The languages of India belong to four major families: Indo-Aryan, Dravidian, Austroasiatic, and Tibeto-Burman. The languages of India reflect the diversity and history of the country, as they have been influenced by various cultures and civilizations, such as the Indo-Aryans, the

Dravidians, the Greeks, the Persians, the Arabs, the Turks, the Mongols, the Mughals, the Europeans, and the British. The languages of India are also the source of many literary and artistic works, such as the Vedas, the Upanishads, the Ramayana, the Mahabharata, the Bhagavad Gita, the Panchatantra, the Jataka Tales, the Kamasutra, the Arthashastra, the Kalidasa, the Bharata, the Valmiki, the Tulsi-das, the Kabir, the Guru Granth Sahib, the Amir Khusro, the Mirza Ghalib, the Rabindranath Tagore, the Sarojini Naidu, the Munshi Premchand, the Raja Rao, the R.K. Narayan, the Mulk Raj Anand, the Salman Rushdie, the Arundhati Roy, the Vikram Seth, the Amitav Ghosh, the Jhumpa Lahiri, etc.

- **Cuisine:** India has a diverse and delicious cuisine that varies from region to region and from community to community. The cuisine of India is influenced by the geography, climate, culture, religion, and history of the country. The cuisine of India is also influenced by the

Module 1- Society State and Polity in India

- This module aims to provide an overview of the historical and contemporary aspects of the society, state and polity in India.
- Society refers to the network of social relationships, institutions, norms and values that shape the collective life of a group of people.
- State refers to the political organization that exercises sovereign authority over a defined territory and population.
- Polity refers to the system of governance, laws, policies and institutions that regulate the state and society.
- Some of the topics covered in this module are:
 - The ancient and medieval origins of Indian civil polity and its distinctive features, such as the concept of dharma, the role of kingship, the diversity of social groups and the emergence of regional powers .
 - The colonial impact on Indian society and state, such as the introduction of modern education, law, bureaucracy, economy and nationalism, and the resistance and reform movements that challenged the British rule .
 - The post-independence evolution of Indian democracy and its challenges, such as the drafting of the Constitution, the formation of political parties, the role of elections, the federal structure, the social movements and the issues of secularism, diversity and development .
 - The current trends and debates in Indian society and polity, such as the impact of globalization, liberalization, media, civil society, identity politics, corruption, human rights and social justice .
- The module aims to develop the students' critical understanding of the complex and dynamic relationship between society, state and polity in

India, and to enable them to appreciate the diversity and plurality of Indian experiences.

State in Ancient India

- A state is a political entity that has a defined territory, population, government and sovereignty.
- The origin and evolution of state in ancient India is a complex and debated topic, as there are different sources and theories that provide different perspectives.
- Some of the main sources of information about state in ancient India are:
 - Vedic literature, such as the Rig Veda, the Atharva Veda, the Brahmanas and the Upanishads, which contain hymns, rituals, myths and philosophical discussions.
 - Epics, such as the Ramayana and the Mahabharata, which narrate the stories of legendary kings, heroes and wars.
 - Buddhist and Jain texts, such as the Sutras, the Jatakas and the Angas, which reflect the teachings and practices of these religions and their impact on society and politics.
 - Arthashastra, a treatise on statecraft, economics and law, attributed to Kautilya, a minister of the Mauryan emperor Chandragupta Maurya.
 - Inscriptions, coins, seals, sculptures and other archaeological evidence, which provide material and visual clues about the rulers, administration, economy and culture of various states and regions.
- Some of the main theories of origin of state in ancient India are:
 - Social contract theory, which suggests that the state emerged from a voluntary agreement among people to form a political society and surrender some of their rights and freedoms to a ruler or a government in exchange for protection and welfare.
 - Divine origin theory, which claims that the state was established by God or gods, and that the ruler was either a god himself or a representative of God, who had the divine right and duty to rule over the people.
 - Organic theory, which views the state as a natural and inevitable outcome of the growth and development of human society, and that the state was like a living organism, with different organs performing different functions.
- Some of the main types of states in ancient India were:
 - Monarchy, which was the most prevalent and dominant type of state in ancient India, where the power and authority of the state was vested in a single person, the king, who was usually hereditary, and who had the supreme control over the administration, military, judiciary and religion of the state.
 - Republic, which was a rare and alternative type of state in ancient India, where the power and authority of the state was shared by a

group of people, who were either elected or nominated by the people, and who formed a council or an assembly, which made decisions on behalf of the state.

- Oligarchy, which was another uncommon type of state in ancient India, where the power and authority of the state was concentrated in the hands of a few people, who belonged to a certain class, caste, tribe or family, and who ruled over the state with their own interests and agendas.
- Some of the main features and characteristics of state in ancient India were:
 - Unitary in nature, which means that the king was the source from which the ministers and provincial governors derived their power, and that the village panchayats, town councils and trade guilds were also controlled by the central government.
 - Hierarchical in structure, which means that the state was divided into various levels and units of administration, such as the central, provincial, district, city and village levels, and that each level had its own officials, departments and functions.
 - Patrimonial in outlook, which means that the state was regarded as the personal property of the king, and that the king could dispose of the state resources and revenues as he pleased, and that the officials and subjects were loyal and obedient to the king as their master.
 - Diverse and dynamic in composition, which means that the state was composed of various ethnic, linguistic, religious and cultural groups, and that the state was constantly changing and evolving due to internal and external factors, such as wars, migrations, invasions, alliances, reforms and revolutions.

Theories of origin of State in India

- The origin of state is a topic of interest in political science, as it relates to the nature, purpose and functions of the state in different societies and times.
- There are different theories of origin of state in India, based on different sources of evidence, such as ancient texts, historical records, archaeological findings, etc.
- Some of the prominent theories of origin of state in India are:
 - **Social Contract Theory:** This theory holds that the state emerged from a voluntary agreement among individuals or groups to form a political community for mutual protection and welfare. The state is based on the consent of the governed and the authority of the ruler is derived from the people. This theory is found in some ancient texts, such as the Mahabharata, the Arthashastra, and the Manusmriti, which describe the origin of kingship and the duties and rights of the

king and the subjects .

- **Divine Origin Theory:** This theory holds that the state is a creation of God or gods, and the ruler is a representative or an incarnation of the divine will. The state is sacred and the authority of the ruler is absolute and unquestionable. This theory is found in some ancient texts, such as the Vedas, the Ramayana, and the Puranas, which describe the origin of kingship and the role of dharma (righteousness) and varna (social order) in the state .
- **Organic Theory:** This theory holds that the state is a natural and inevitable outcome of the social evolution and development of human beings. The state is an organism that grows and changes with the needs and aspirations of the people. The state is based on the principle of cooperation and the authority of the ruler is limited and accountable. This theory is found in some ancient texts, such as the Upanishads, the Buddha's teachings, and the Jain scriptures, which describe the origin of republics and the concept of mahasammata (grand elect) in the state .

Evolutionary Theory of origin of State

- The Evolutionary Theory of origin of State is the theory that explains the state as the product of historical and social evolution over a long period of time .
- According to this theory, the state is not a sudden or artificial creation, but a natural and gradual development of human society from simple to complex forms of organization .
- The Evolutionary Theory traces the origin of the state from the primitive stages of human society, such as the family, the clan, the tribe, the village, the city, and the nation, and shows how the state emerged as a result of various factors, such as population growth, economic needs, social differentiation, warfare, religion, and culture .
- The Evolutionary Theory is regarded as the most scientific and convincing theory of origin of the state, as it is based on historical evidence and anthropological research, and it accounts for the diversity and complexity of the modern state .
- The Evolutionary Theory also helps to understand the functions and purposes of the state, as it shows the state to be a response to the changing needs and conditions of human society, and a means of achieving social order, justice, and progress .

Force Theory of Origin of State

- This theory proposes that the origin of state is developed through the use of force.
- One person or a small group of people claim control over the population in a specific area by force .

- Once the rule is well established, the state is established. This theory is generally a result of war.
- The theory of force emphasizes the origin of the state in the subordination of the weak to the strong .
- The theory is based on the old saying that “war begets the king” .
- Force has played an important part in the origin and development of some of the greatest empires of history.
- Force is an essential element of the state, as it is the means of maintaining order and security.
- However, the theory of force is fallacious, as it does not explain the origin of the state in peaceful and voluntary ways.
- The theory of force also ignores the role of consent, cooperation, and social contract in the formation of the state .
- The theory of force is historically important, but not adequate to explain the origin of the state in all cases.

Mystical Theory of origin of State

- The mystical theory of origin of state is based on the belief that the state is a divine creation or a manifestation of God’s will on earth.
- According to this theory, the state has a sacred and supernatural origin and its authority is derived from God or some other supreme power.
- The mystical theory of origin of state can be divided into two subtypes: the theocratic theory and the patriarchal theory.
- The theocratic theory holds that the state is directly established by God or his chosen representatives, such as prophets, kings, or priests. The state is thus a theocracy, a form of government where God or a religious leader is the ultimate ruler. Examples of theocratic states are ancient Israel, the Islamic caliphate, and the Vatican City.
- The patriarchal theory holds that the state is an extension of the family, which is the original and natural social unit created by God. The state is thus a patriarchal, a form of government where the father or the eldest male is the head of the family and the state. Examples of patriarchal states are ancient Rome, China, and India.

Contract Theory of Origin of State

- The contract theory of origin of state is a theory that explains how the state or the society emerged from a voluntary agreement or contract among individuals or groups of people.
- The theory assumes that there was a state of nature before the formation of the state, where people lived in natural conditions without any law or authority.
- The theory also assumes that people in the state of nature faced some problems or inconveniences, such as insecurity, violence, conflict, or lack of cooperation, that made them dissatisfied with their situation.

- The theory then argues that people decided to enter into a social contract, either with each other or with a sovereign, to create a state or a society that would provide them with security, order, justice, and other benefits.
- The theory also implies that people gave up some of their natural rights or freedoms in exchange for the protection and services of the state or the society, and that they agreed to obey the laws and rules of the state or the society as long as the state or the society fulfilled its obligations.
- The theory has been developed and modified by different thinkers, such as Thomas Hobbes, John Locke, Jean-Jacques Rousseau, and Immanuel Kant, who had different views on the nature and terms of the social contract, the role and power of the sovereign, and the rights and duties of the citizens.
- The theory has been influential in the history of political thought and practice, as it has provided a rational and moral justification for the existence and authority of the state or the society, and has also inspired the ideas of democracy, human rights, and constitutionalism.

Stages of State Formation in Ancient India

- State formation in ancient India is the process of emergence and development of political entities that exercised authority and control over a territory and population in the Indian subcontinent.
- State formation is linked with the growth and spread of agriculture, trade, industry and urbanisation, which generated surplus and enabled the creation and maintenance of a ruling class, bureaucracy, army and public works.
- The stages of state formation in ancient India can be broadly divided into four phases: the Vedic period, the Mahajanapada period, the Mauryan period and the post-Mauryan period.

Vedic Period (c. 1500-600 BCE)

- The earliest evidence of state formation in ancient India comes from the Vedic texts, which describe the social and political organisation of the Indo-Aryan tribes that migrated into the north-western part of the subcontinent.
- The Vedic society was divided into four varnas or classes: Brahmins (priests), Kshatriyas (warriors), Vaishyas (merchants and farmers) and Shudras (servants and labourers). The varnas were further subdivided into jatis or castes, based on occupation and lineage.
- The basic unit of political organisation was the tribe or jana, which was composed of several clans or gotras. The tribe was led by a chief or rajan, who was assisted by a council of elders or sabha and an assembly of people or samiti. The chief was responsible for the protection, welfare and expansion of the tribe, and performed religious and sacrificial rites to ensure the favour of the gods.

- The Vedic tribes were mostly pastoral and nomadic, but gradually settled down in the fertile river valleys of the Indus, Saraswati and Ganga. They practiced agriculture, animal husbandry, trade and crafts, and came into contact and conflict with the indigenous people or dasas, who were often enslaved or subjugated.
- The Vedic period witnessed the emergence of larger territorial units or janapadas, which were formed by the consolidation or alliance of several tribes. Some of the prominent janapadas mentioned in the later Vedic texts are Kuru, Panchala, Kosala, Videha, Magadha, Anga and Vajji. These janapadas developed urban centres, coinage, writing and more complex political and administrative systems .

Mahajanapada Period (c. 600-300 BCE)

- The Mahajanapada period marks the transition from tribal polities to territorial states in ancient India. The term mahajanapada means “great realm” or “great people”, and refers to the sixteen major states that dominated the political landscape of northern and central India in this period.
- The mahajanapadas were either monarchies or oligarchies, and had varying degrees of centralisation and bureaucracy. They maintained standing armies, collected taxes, issued laws and maintained diplomatic relations with each other. They also competed for resources, trade routes and supremacy, and engaged in frequent wars and alliances.
- The mahajanapadas were influenced by the cultural and intellectual movements of this period, such as Jainism, Buddhism, Ajivika and other heterodox sects, which challenged the authority and rituals of the Brahmanical orthodoxy. They also witnessed the growth of urbanisation, commerce, art and literature, and the development of the Brahmi and Kharosthi scripts.
- Some of the prominent mahajanapadas were Magadha, Kosala, Vatsa, Avanti, Gandhara, Kamboja, Kashi, Malla, Chedi, Matsya, Shurasena, Panchala, Kuru, Anga, Assaka and Vajji. Among these, Magadha emerged as the most powerful and influential state, and laid the foundation for the first pan-Indian empire under the Mauryan dynasty.

Mauryan Period (c. 300-185 BCE)

- The Mauryan period marks the zenith of state formation in ancient India, as the Mauryan empire became the largest and most prosperous political entity in the subcontinent, and one of the largest in the world at that time.
- The Mauryan empire was founded by Chandragupta Maurya, who overthrew the Nanda dynasty of Magadha and expanded his dominion over most of northern and central India, with the help of his mentor and minister, Chanakya or Kautilya, the author of the Arthashastra.

Kingship in states in Ancient India

- Kingship in ancient India was a sovereignty over a territory by a King who functioned as its protector, a role which involved both secular and religious power.
- Ancient Indians believed that the Kingship arose out of military requirement. A king must be a capable general whose leadership is recognized by all.
- The Vedic literature has some speculations about the origin of kingship. Some of them are:
 - Divine Origin Theory: This theory of origin of kingship as well as the state was not widely acclaimed in the ancient Indian polity. The king, according to this theory, was a subordinate to law, which was made by the society and not him.
 - Social Contract Theory: This theory of origin of kingship as well as the state was more popular in the ancient Indian polity. The king, according to this theory, was a representative of the people who had voluntarily surrendered some of their rights and powers to him for the sake of security and welfare.
 - Kshatriya Theory: This theory of origin of kingship as well as the state was based on the varna system of the ancient Indian society. The king, according to this theory, was a member of the kshatriya or warrior class who had the duty and right to protect the other classes and maintain order.
- The ideology and symbolism of kingship have played an important role in Hinduism throughout its history, an influence that continues into the present day. The two great epic texts, the Mahābhārata and Rāmāyaṇa, are narratives of kingship, and the tensions and ambiguities inherent to the role of the king are fundamental to their plots and themes.
- The Brahmanic Theory of Kingship was the most influential and dominant theory of kingship in ancient India. It was based on the concept of dharma or cosmic order, which the king had to uphold and enforce. The king was considered as the embodiment of the god Vishnu, who was the preserver and protector of the world. The king was also the patron and protector of the brahmins, who were the custodians of the sacred knowledge and rituals. The king had to perform various sacrifices and ceremonies to ensure the prosperity and welfare of his subjects and the cosmos.

Council of Ministers in Ancient India

- The council of ministers was a group of advisers and officials who assisted the king in governing the state.
- The council of ministers was known by different names, such as Mantri-parīṣad, Mantri-maṇḍala, or Mantri-gaṇa .
- The council of ministers was composed of various ranks and portfolios, such as the Prime Minister (Mantrimukhya or Mahāmantri), the Chief Jus-

tice (Prādhyaṇika or Prādhyaṇika), the Treasurer (Sannidhāta or Kośādhyaṇika), the Commander-in-Chief (Senāpati or Senānī), the Foreign Minister (Dūta or Sandhivigraha), and others .

- The council of ministers was selected by the king based on their qualifications, character, loyalty, and experience. They were expected to be well-versed in the scriptures, law, politics, diplomacy, and military affairs .
- The council of ministers had various functions and duties, such as advising the king, implementing his policies, administering justice, collecting revenue, maintaining security, conducting foreign relations, and supervising various departments and officials .
- The council of ministers was also involved in the succession of the king, either by electing a new king from the royal family or by supporting the heir apparent .
- The council of ministers was not a fixed or permanent body, but rather a flexible and dynamic one, depending on the needs and preferences of the king and the state. The king had the authority to appoint, dismiss, reward, or punish the ministers as he saw fit .
- The council of ministers was an important institution in ancient India, as it helped the king in maintaining the welfare and prosperity of the people and the state. The council of ministers also acted as a check and balance on the king's power, and as a source of counsel and guidance for him .

Administration in Ancient India

- Administration in ancient India refers to the structures, procedures and behaviors that the ruling dynasties or emperors used to govern their respective territories and people.
- Administration in ancient India can be divided into four main periods: the Indus Valley civilization, the Vedic period, the classical period and the medieval period.
- The Indus Valley civilization (2500-1500 BCE) was one of the earliest urban civilizations in the world. It had a well-organized administration based on a centralized authority, a uniform system of weights and measures, a planned urban layout, a drainage system, a script and a trade network. The king was the head of the administration and was assisted by ministers and councillors. The administration was divided into various departments such as agriculture, irrigation, trade, taxation, justice, etc. The Indus Valley civilization declined around 1500 BCE due to various reasons such as environmental changes, invasions, internal conflicts, etc.
- The Vedic period (1500-600 BCE) was the period when the Indo-Aryan people migrated to the Indian subcontinent and composed the Vedas, the oldest scriptures of Hinduism. The administration in the Vedic period was based on the concept of varna (social class) and ashrama (stage of life). The king was the protector of the people and the upholder of dharma (righteousness). He was elected by the sabha (assembly) and the samiti

(council) of the people. He was assisted by a purohita (priest), a senani (army chief), a gramani (village head), etc. The administration was divided into various units such as janapada (territory), rashtra (district), grama (village), kula (family), etc. The administration was mainly concerned with maintaining law and order, collecting taxes, performing rituals, conducting wars, etc.

- The classical period (600 BCE-1200 CE) was the period when the Indian subcontinent witnessed the rise and fall of various empires such as the Mauryan, the Gupta, the Kushan, the Satavahana, the Chola, the Pallava, the Pala, the Rashtrakuta, etc. The administration in the classical period was based on the concept of danda-niti (policy of punishment) and artha-shastra (science of wealth). The king was the supreme authority and the source of law. He was advised by a mantri-parishad (council of ministers) and a rajya-sabha (state assembly). He was assisted by various officials such as amatya (minister), adhyaksha (superintendent), yukta (officer), pradeshika (governor), etc. The administration was divided into various units such as samrajya (empire), pradesha (province), mandala (region), vishaya (district), nagara (city), grama (village), etc. The administration was mainly concerned with maintaining peace and prosperity, expanding the territory, promoting culture and learning, protecting the subjects, etc.
- The medieval period (1200-1700 CE) was the period when the Indian subcontinent was invaded and ruled by various foreign dynasties such as the Delhi Sultanate, the Mughal Empire, the Vijayanagara Empire, the Maratha Empire, etc. The administration in the medieval period was based on the concept of sharia (Islamic law) and mansabdari (rank system). The king was the absolute ruler and the representative of God. He was advised by a diwan (prime minister) and a majlis-i-khalwat (private council). He was assisted by various officials such as wazir (minister), sipehsalar (army commander), subahdar (provincial governor), faujdar (district governor), kotwal (city magistrate), patwari (village accountant), etc. The administration was divided into various units such as sultanate (kingdom), subah (province), sarkar (district), pargana (sub-district), qasba (town), mauza (village), etc. The administration was mainly concerned with consolidating the power, collecting revenue, administering justice, patronizing art and architecture, etc.

Political Ideals in Ancient India and their relevance in modern times

- Ancient India had a rich tradition of political thought and practice that spanned from the Vedic period to the medieval period.
- Some of the political ideals that emerged from this tradition are:
 - Democracy: The Rig Veda, the oldest of the four Vedas, extolled the concept of **Samjnana**, which means the collective consciousness or will of the people. The Rig Veda also described the **Sabha** and the **Samiti**, two assemblies that represented the people and participated

in decision-making. The Sabha was composed of elders and wise men, while the Samiti was a more inclusive body that included women and commoners. The Sabhas and Samitis were also found in the later periods of the Mahajanapadas, the republics, and the Mauryan empire. Democracy in ancient India was not based on universal suffrage or equality, but on the principle of consent and consultation .

- Monarchy: Monarchy was another popular form of government in ancient India, especially in the later periods of the Magadha empire, the Gupta empire, and the Rajput kingdoms. Monarchy in ancient India was not absolute or tyrannical, but based on the concept of **Dharma**, which means the moral duty or law. The king was expected to uphold Dharma and protect the people from injustice, violence, and foreign invasion. The king was also guided by a council of ministers, priests, and advisors, who helped him in administration and policy-making. The king was also bound by the **Dandaniti** or the science of punishment, which prescribed the rules and methods of enforcing law and order .
 - Caste: Caste was a social and political institution that divided the society into four main groups: the Brahmins (priests and scholars), the Kshatriyas (warriors and rulers), the Vaishyas (merchants and farmers), and the Shudras (servants and laborers). Caste was based on the concept of **Varna**, which means the color or quality of a person. Caste was also influenced by the concept of **Karma**, which means the action or deed of a person. Caste determined the occupation, status, rights, and duties of a person in the society. Caste also influenced the political system, as the Brahmins and the Kshatriyas were the dominant groups that controlled the religious and secular affairs of the state.
- The relevance of these political ideals in modern times can be seen in the following ways:
 - Democracy: Democracy is the most widely accepted and practiced form of government in the modern world. Democracy is based on the principles of representation, participation, accountability, and human rights. Democracy in modern times has evolved from the ancient concept of Samjnana, as it recognizes the importance of the people's voice and will in governance. Democracy in modern times also incorporates the features of the ancient Sabhas and Samitis, such as the parliament, the judiciary, the civil society, and the media, which act as the checks and balances of the executive power.
 - Monarchy: Monarchy is a form of government that is still prevalent in some parts of the world, such as the United Kingdom, Saudi Arabia, Thailand, and Bhutan. Monarchy in modern times is based on the concept of constitutionalism, which means that the king or the queen is the head of state, but the real power lies with the elected government and the constitution. Monarchy in modern times has

evolved from the ancient concept of Dharma, as it recognizes the responsibility and the accountability of the ruler to the people and the law. Monarchy in modern times also incorporates the features of the ancient Dandaniti, such as the rule of law, the separation of powers, and the human rights .

- Caste: Caste is a social and political institution that is still prevalent in some parts of the world, especially in India, Nepal, Pakistan, and Sri Lanka. Caste in modern times is based on the concept of identity, which means that the people belong to a certain group based on their birth, ancestry, occupation, or religion. Caste in modern times has evolved from the ancient concept of Varna, as it recognizes the diversity and the plurality of the society. Caste in modern times also incorporates the features of the ancient concept of Karma, such as the social mobility, the affirmative action, and the human dignity[⁴

Conditions of the Welfare of Societies in Ancient India

- The welfare of the societies in ancient India was based on the concept of **duty** rather than **rights**. The rulers, the priests, the warriors, the merchants, and the workers had different duties and responsibilities according to their **varna** or social class .
- The welfare of the societies in ancient India was also influenced by the **ashramas** or stages of life. There were four ashramas: **brahmacharya** (student life), **grihastha** (householder life), **vanaprastha** (retired life), and **sannyasa** (renounced life). Each ashrama had its own rules and obligations for the individual and the society.
- The welfare of the societies in ancient India was further enhanced by the **sanskaras** or sacraments. These were rites of passage that marked the important events and transitions in a person's life, such as birth, initiation, marriage, death, etc. The sanskaras were meant to purify, sanctify, and educate the individual and the society.
- The welfare of the societies in ancient India was also dependent on the **family**. The family was the basic unit of society and the source of social and economic security. The family was usually patriarchal, joint, and extended, with the elders having authority and respect. The family was also responsible for the education, marriage, and welfare of its members.
- The welfare of the societies in ancient India was also affected by the **marriage**. Marriage was considered a sacred and lifelong bond between a man and a woman of the same varna. The marriage was arranged by the parents or elders, and the bride and groom had little choice or consent. The marriage was also accompanied by a dowry, which was a gift given by the bride's family to the groom's family.
- The welfare of the societies in ancient India was also influenced by the **position of women**. Women had a subordinate and dependent status in the patriarchal and hierarchical society. Women had limited rights and freedoms, and were expected to obey and serve their husbands, fathers,

brothers, and sons. Women were also subject to various restrictions and taboos, such as **sati** (the practice of widow immolation), **purdah** (the practice of veiling and seclusion), and **child marriage** .

- The welfare of the societies in ancient India was also related to the **dresses and ornaments**. The dresses and ornaments reflected the social status, wealth, and occupation of the people. The dresses were usually made of cotton, silk, or wool, and were dyed with various colors. The ornaments were made of gold, silver, copper, iron, or precious stones, and were worn on the ears, nose, neck, arms, fingers, ankles, etc. The dresses and ornaments also varied according to the region, climate, and culture.
- The welfare of the societies in ancient India was also connected to the **food habits**. The food habits were influenced by the religious, ethical, and medical beliefs of the people. The food was usually vegetarian, with the exception of some animal products, such as milk, butter, cheese, honey, etc. The food was also classified into three types: **sattvic** (pure and wholesome), **rajasik** (stimulating and passionate), and **tamasik** (dull and ignorant). The food habits also differed according to the varna, ashrama, and region.
- The welfare of the societies in ancient India was also associated with the **amusements and entertainments**. The amusements and entertainments were sources of recreation, relaxation, and education for the people. The amusements and entertainments included various forms of art, literature, music, dance, drama, painting, sculpture, architecture, etc. The amusements and entertainments also included various games, sports, festivals, fairs, pilgrimages, etc.
- The welfare of the societies in ancient India was also influenced by the **slavery**. Slavery was a common and accepted institution in ancient India. Slaves were usually prisoners of war, debtors, criminals, or low-caste people. Slaves had no rights or freedoms, and were treated as the property of their masters. Slaves were used for various domestic, agricultural, and military purposes^[1]

The Seven Limbs of the State in Ancient India

- The seven limbs of the state (saptanga) were formulated by Kautilya, a political thinker and advisor to the Mauryan emperor Chandragupta, in his treatise Arthashastra, which deals with the art of governance and statecraft .
- The seven limbs are:
 - Swamin (the king): The king is the head of the state and the source of authority. He is responsible for the peace, justice and stability of the state. He should be virtuous, intelligent, courageous and benevolent .
 - Amatya (the minister or the bureaucracy): The minister or the bureaucracy is the second limb of the state and assists the king in administration and policy-making. They should be loyal, efficient,

- honest and skilled .
- Janapada (the land and the people): The land and the people are the third limb of the state and the basis of its economy and security. The land should be fertile, well-cultivated and well-protected. The people should be happy, prosperous and obedient .
- Durga (the fort or the capital): The fort or the capital is the fourth limb of the state and the center of its power and prestige. It should be strategically located, well-fortified and well-supplied. It should also be a hub of culture, education and commerce .
- Kosha (the treasury or the wealth): The treasury or the wealth is the fifth limb of the state and the source of its strength and resources. It should be abundant, well-managed and well-spent. It should also be used for the welfare of the people and the defense of the state .
- Danda (the army or the coercive authority): The army or the coercive authority is the sixth limb of the state and the instrument of its enforcement and expansion. It should be well-trained, well-equipped and well-disciplined. It should also be loyal, brave and patriotic .
- Mitra (the ally or the friend): The ally or the friend is the seventh limb of the state and the support of its diplomacy and security. It should be reliable, trustworthy and friendly. It should also share common interests, values and goals with the state .
- According to Kautilya, the state should maintain a balance among the seven limbs and ensure their excellence and harmony. The state should also be aware of the strengths and weaknesses of its own limbs and those of its enemies and allies. The state should also strive to enhance its own limbs and weaken those of its enemies and rivals .

Society in Ancient India

- The society in ancient India was based on the concept of **varna** and **ashrama**, which divided the people into four main classes and four stages of life respectively.
- The four classes or varnas were **Brahmins** (priests and scholars), **Kshatriyas** (warriors and rulers), **Vaishyas** (merchants and farmers), and **Shudras** (servants and laborers). There was also a fifth group of people who were outside the varna system, called the **Untouchables** or **Dalits** (outcasts and oppressed).
- The four stages or ashramas of life were **Brahmacharya** (student), **Grihastha** (householder), **Vanaprastha** (retired), and **Sannyasa** (renunciant). Each stage had its own duties and responsibilities, and people were expected to follow them according to their age and varna.
- The society in ancient India was also influenced by the emergence of different religions and philosophies, such as **Hinduism**, **Buddhism**, **Jainism**, **Sikhism**, and others. These religions shaped the beliefs, values, rituals, and practices of the people, and also challenged the existing social order and hierarchy.

- The society in ancient India was also marked by the development of various civilizations and empires, such as the **Indus Valley Civilization**, the **Mauryan Empire**, the **Gupta Empire**, and others. These civilizations and empires contributed to the advancement of art, architecture, literature, science, technology, trade, and culture in ancient India.
- The society in ancient India was also diverse and complex, as it consisted of various ethnic groups, languages, regions, and cultures. The people of ancient India interacted with each other and with other civilizations through trade, migration, war, and diplomacy. The society in ancient India was also dynamic and changing, as it faced various challenges and opportunities throughout history.

Purusārtha in Society in Ancient India

- Purusārtha (Sanskrit: पुरुषार्थ) means “object (ive) of human pursuit” or “human goal”.
- It is a key concept in Hinduism that refers to the four proper goals or aims of a human life. These are Dharma, Artha, Kama and Moksha.
- Dharma means righteousness, moral values, duty, law and ethics. It is the foundation of the other three goals and guides the human conduct in accordance with the cosmic order.
- Artha means prosperity, economic values, wealth, power and security. It is the pursuit of material well-being and worldly success, but not at the cost of Dharma.
- Kama means pleasure, love, desire, sensuality and enjoyment. It is the pursuit of aesthetic and emotional fulfillment, but not at the expense of Dharma and Artha.
- Moksha means liberation, emancipation, freedom and release. It is the ultimate goal of human life and the transcendence of the cycle of birth and death (samsara). It is achieved by the realization of the true nature of the self (atman) and its identity with the supreme reality (brahman).
- The concept of Purusārtha is a fundamental principle of social ethics in Hinduism. It is not only meant to set an ideal objective but also to convey the right means to achieve them.
- The concept of Purusārtha also reflects the diversity and complexity of human life and society in ancient India. Different people may have different priorities and preferences among the four goals, depending on their stage of life, caste, gender, occupation and personal inclination.
- The concept of Purusārtha also acknowledges the interdependence and balance among the four goals. None of them can be pursued in isolation or to the exclusion of the others. They are all necessary for a holistic and harmonious human existence.

Varnāshrama System in Society in Ancient India

- The varnāshrama system was a concept of social and moral order in ancient

Hindu society. It consisted of four varnas (classes) and four ashramas (stages of life) that defined the duties and responsibilities of each individual according to their birth and stage of life .

- The four varnas were:
 - Brahman: the class of priests, teachers and scholars who performed religious rituals and imparted knowledge. They were considered the highest and purest varna, and were expected to lead a life of austerity, celibacy and learning .
 - Kshatriya: the class of kings, warriors and aristocrats who protected the society and maintained law and order. They were expected to be brave, generous and loyal, and to uphold the dharma (righteousness) of their varna .
 - Vaishya: the class of traders, merchants and farmers who engaged in economic activities and contributed to the wealth and prosperity of the society. They were expected to be honest, industrious and charitable, and to follow the dharma of their varna .
 - Sudra: the class of servants, laborers and artisans who performed various manual and menial tasks for the other varnas. They were considered the lowest and impure varna, and were expected to serve the other varnas and follow their dharma without complaint .
- The four ashramas were:
 - Brahmacharya: the stage of student life, in which a person underwent education and training under a guru (teacher) and observed the rules of discipline, celibacy and obedience. This stage lasted until the age of 25 .
 - Grihastha: the stage of household life, in which a person got married, raised a family and performed the duties of their varna. This stage lasted until the age of 50 .
 - Vanaprastha: the stage of forest dwelling, in which a person retired from worldly affairs and devoted themselves to spiritual pursuits and social service. This stage lasted until the age of 75 .
 - Sannyasa: the stage of renunciation, in which a person renounced all attachments and desires and sought liberation from the cycle of birth and death. This stage was optional and could be entered at any time after completing the previous stages .
- The varnāshrama system was based on the idea of dharma, which meant the moral law or duty of each individual according to their varna and ashrama. By following their dharma, a person could achieve happiness, harmony and salvation .
- The varnāshrama system was also influenced by the concept of karma, which meant the law of action and reaction. According to this concept, a person's actions in their present life would determine their fate in their next life. By performing good actions, a person could improve their status and condition in their next life, and vice versa .
- The varnāshrama system was not rigid or fixed, but flexible and dynamic. It allowed for mobility and change within and between the varnas and

ashramas, depending on the circumstances and qualifications of the individual. It also recognized the diversity and complexity of human nature and society, and accommodated various sub-groups and sects within the Hindu fold .

- The varnāshrama system was not a system of oppression or discrimination, but a system of cooperation and interdependence. It aimed to create a harmonious and balanced society, in which each individual contributed to the common good and welfare of the whole, and received respect and recognition for their role and function .

Āshrama or the Stages of Life in Society in Ancient India

- Āshrama (Sanskrit: आश्रम) is a system of stages of life discussed in Hindu texts of the ancient and medieval eras.
- The Āshrama system is one facet of the Dharma concept in Hinduism, which prescribes the duties and responsibilities of an individual according to their age, occupation, and social status .
- The four Āshramas are:
 - Brahmacharya (student), marked by chastity, devotion, and obedience to one's teacher. This stage lasts until the age of 25, and involves learning the Vedas and other sacred texts, as well as the skills and values necessary for life.
 - Gṛhastha (householder), requiring marriage, the begetting of children, sustaining one's family and helping support priests and holy men, and fulfillment of duties toward gods and ancestors. This stage lasts until the age of 50, and involves pursuing worldly pleasures and wealth, as well as performing sacrifices and charity.
 - Vanaprastha (forest walker/forest dweller), involving gradual withdrawal from worldly attachments and responsibilities, and spending more time in meditation and spiritual pursuits. This stage lasts until the age of 75, and involves retiring to the forest or a secluded place, along with one's spouse or alone, and living a simple and austere life.
 - Sannyasa (renunciate), involving complete renunciation of worldly desires and attachments, and dedicating oneself to the attainment of moksha (liberation) or the realization of the ultimate truth. This stage lasts until death, and involves giving up all possessions, family ties, and social obligations, and wandering as a mendicant or living in an ashram (hermitage) with other renunciates.
- The Āshrama system was meant to provide a framework for the spiritual and moral development of an individual, as well as to maintain the social order and harmony in ancient India . However, not everyone followed the Āshrama system strictly, and some people chose to skip or combine some stages, or to follow a different path altogether. The Āshrama system also faced criticism and challenges from some religious movements, such as Buddhism and Jainism, which rejected the authority of the Vedas and the caste system.

Marriage in Society in Ancient India

- Marriage was a medium for bringing together the two distinct halves of life, man and woman, who constituted an entire, single organic whole.
- Marriage was also a socially recognised and approved relationship that provided material and psychological satisfaction to the spouses.
- Marriage was considered a sacrament in Hinduism, which was the dominant religion in ancient India, and symbolized diverse aspects of human nature such as love, selflessness, trust, affection, and compassion.
- Marriage also established kinship relations between families and clans, which were important for social cohesion and cooperation.
- There were eight main forms of Hindu marriages in ancient India, namely Brahma, Daiva, Arsha, Prajapatya, Gandharva, Asura, Rakshasa, and Pisaka, which differed in terms of the rituals, ceremonies, and conditions involved .
- The most righteous and ideal form of marriage was the Brahma marriage, where the bride was given by her father to a learned and virtuous groom after adorning her with ornaments and clothes .
- The least righteous and most condemned form of marriage was the Pisaka marriage, where the groom forcibly took away the bride from her home when she was asleep or intoxicated .
- The other forms of marriage ranged from the Daiva marriage, where the bride was given to a priest as a sacrificial fee, to the Gandharva marriage, where the bride and groom eloped out of mutual love, without the consent of their families .
- The form of marriage also determined the status and rights of the spouses, the inheritance of property, and the legitimacy of the offspring .
- Marriage in ancient India was thus a complex and diverse institution that reflected the social, religious, and cultural values of the time.

Understanding Gender as a Social Category in Society in Ancient India

- Gender is a social construct that defines the roles, expectations and norms associated with different sexes in a given society.
- In ancient India, gender roles were not fixed or rigid, but varied according to the time period, region, caste, class and religion.
- Generally, women in ancient India were respected and valued for their contributions to the family, society and culture. They had access to education, religious rites, property rights and political participation in some cases.
- However, women also faced discrimination, oppression and violence in various forms, such as child marriage, sati, dowry, domestic abuse and social exclusion. These practices were influenced by patriarchal norms, laws and customs that favored men over women.

- Some of the factors that shaped gender relations in ancient India were:
 - The Vedic period (1500-600 BCE): This was the earliest phase of Indian history, marked by the composition of the Vedas, the sacred texts of Hinduism. Women in this period enjoyed a high status and participated in religious ceremonies, intellectual debates and warfare. They could also become rishis, or sages, who composed hymns and taught the Vedas. Some examples of women rishis are Gargi, Maitreyi, Lopamudra and Ghosha .
 - The post-Vedic period (600-300 BCE): This was the period of social and political changes, marked by the emergence of new religions, such as Buddhism and Jainism, and the rise of the Mauryan empire. Women in this period faced a decline in their status and freedom, as they were increasingly confined to the domestic sphere and subjected to the authority of their fathers, husbands and sons. They also lost their rights to education, property and inheritance, and were expected to be obedient, loyal and chaste. Some of the laws that restricted women's rights were the Manusmriti, the Dharmashastras and the Arthashastra .
 - The classical period (300 BCE-600 CE): This was the period of cultural and artistic achievements, marked by the development of literature, science, mathematics, astronomy and medicine. Women in this period had a mixed status, as they were admired for their beauty, grace and talent, but also exploited for their sexuality, labor and fertility. They had some opportunities to pursue education, arts, crafts and trade, but they also faced social and religious barriers, such as caste discrimination, polygamy, purdah and devadasi system. Some of the women who excelled in this period were Mirabai, Andal, Avvaiyar and Amrapali .
 - The medieval period (600-1500 CE): This was the period of political and religious conflicts, marked by the invasions of the Turks, Mongols and Mughals, and the spread of Islam and Bhakti movement. Women in this period had a low status and suffered from various forms of violence, such as rape, abduction, slavery and forced conversion. They also faced social and economic hardships, such as poverty, famine, disease and illiteracy. They had little or no access to education, property, justice and public life. Some of the women who resisted or challenged the oppression were Rani Durgavati, Rani Padmini, Razia Sultana and Lal Ded .

The representation of Women in Historical traditions in Society in Ancient India

- Women in ancient India had a complex and varied status depending on the time period, the region, the religion, and the caste they belonged to.
- During the Indus Valley Civilization (c. 2500-1500 BCE), women were re-

spected and honored as mothers and goddesses. They enjoyed full freedom and participated in public activities, decision-making, education, and war

- During the Vedic period (c. 1500-500 BCE), women also held an honored place in society and had access to the sacred scriptures, rituals, and ceremonies. They could become rishis (sages) and teachers of the Vedas .
- However, with the rise of the Brahmanical order and the emergence of the Manusmriti (c. 200 BCE-200 CE), the legal code that prescribed the duties and rights of different classes and genders, women's status declined significantly. They were subjected to the authority of their fathers, husbands, and sons, and were denied education, property, and independence .
- During the classical period (c. 320-550 CE), women's status varied according to the political and cultural context. Some women, especially from the upper castes and royal families, enjoyed some privileges and freedoms, such as education, art, literature, and administration. Some women also became prominent poets, scholars, and rulers, such as Kalidasa, Maitreyi, and Prabhavati .
- During the medieval period (c. 550-1526 CE), women's status was influenced by the invasions and migrations of various foreign groups, such as the Huns, the Turks, the Arabs, and the Mongols. These groups brought their own cultural and religious norms, which often conflicted with the existing traditions of the native people. Women faced violence, oppression, and discrimination from the invaders, as well as from the orthodox Hindu society. They were confined to the domestic sphere, and were expected to follow the ideals of sati (self-immolation of widows), jauhar (mass suicide of women to avoid capture by enemies), and purdah (veiling and seclusion of women) .
- During the modern period (c. 1526-1947 CE), women's status was influenced by the colonial rule of the British, as well as the social and religious reform movements that emerged in response to it. The British introduced new laws and policies that affected the lives of women, such as the abolition of sati, the legalization of widow remarriage, the promotion of female education, and the protection of women's rights. However, these reforms also faced resistance and criticism from the conservative sections of the society, who saw them as an imposition of foreign values and a threat to their culture and religion .
- Women in ancient India were not a homogeneous group, but rather a diverse and dynamic one, who experienced different levels of empowerment and oppression depending on the historical, geographical, religious, and social factors that shaped their lives. They were not passive victims, but active agents, who contributed to the development of the civilization and the culture of the subcontinent.

Challenges faced by Women in Society in Ancient India

- Women in ancient India had different roles and rights depending on the time period, the region, the religion, and the caste they belonged to. Generally, they faced more challenges and oppression as time went by and patriarchy became stronger.
- Some of the challenges faced by women in ancient India were:
 - Lack of autonomy, mobility, and social freedom. Women were expected to be dependent on their fathers, husbands, or sons for their livelihood, protection, and decision-making. They were confined to the domestic sphere and had limited access to education, property, and public life.
 - Child marriage and widowhood. Women were often married at a very young age, sometimes even before puberty, to men who were much older than them. They had no say in choosing their spouses and had to obey their husbands and in-laws. If their husbands died, they had to either commit sati (self-immolation on the funeral pyre of their husbands) or live a life of misery and isolation as widows .
 - Sati, Pardha, and Devadasi systems. Sati was a practice where a widow had to sacrifice her life along with her dead husband, either voluntarily or by force, to show her loyalty and devotion. Pardha was a practice where women had to cover their faces and bodies with veils and avoid contact with men outside their family. Devadasi was a practice where young girls were dedicated to temples and had to serve the priests and the gods as dancers, singers, and prostitutes .
 - Dasi, Niyog, and Polygamy. Dasi was a term used for female slaves who were captured, bought, or inherited by men and had to serve them as domestic workers, concubines, or prostitutes. Niyog was a practice where a widow or a barren woman had to cohabit with another man, usually a relative of her husband, to produce a son for her husband's lineage. Polygamy was a practice where a man could have more than one wife, either for political, economic, or personal reasons .
- These challenges were not only imposed by the society, but also by the religious and legal texts, such as the Smritis, the Puranas, and the Epics, which prescribed the duties and norms for women and justified their subordination and discrimination. Women were considered to be inferior, impure, and dependent on men, and had to follow the ideals of pativrata (faithful wife), matrivata (devoted mother), and sumangali (auspicious woman) .

Four-class Classification of Society in Ancient India

- The four-class classification of society in ancient India is also known as the **varna system** or the **caste system**. It is a hierarchical division of people based on their occupation, birth, and ritual purity.
- The four classes are:

- **Brahmins:** the priests, scholars, and teachers who perform religious rituals and study the sacred texts. They are considered the highest and most pure class.
 - **Kshatriyas:** the rulers, warriors, and administrators who protect and govern the society. They are the second highest class and have the duty of upholding justice and order.
 - **Vaishyas:** the farmers, traders, merchants, and artisans who produce and distribute goods and services. They are the third highest class and have the duty of supporting the economy and society.
 - **Shudras:** the laborers, servants, and workers who perform manual and menial tasks. They are the lowest and most impure class and have the duty of serving the higher classes.
- The four-class classification of society in ancient India was based on the **Vedas**, the oldest and most authoritative scriptures of Hinduism. The Vedas describe the origin of the four classes from the body parts of a primordial being called **Purusha**. The Brahmins came from his mouth, the Kshatriyas from his arms, the Vaishyas from his thighs, and the Shudras from his feet.
 - The four-class classification of society in ancient India was not rigid or fixed. It allowed for some mobility and flexibility based on one's actions, character, and merit. The concept of **karma** (the law of cause and effect) and **dharma** (the moral duty) influenced one's status and destiny in this life and the next.
 - The four-class classification of society in ancient India was also influenced by other factors such as geography, ethnicity, culture, and religion. Over time, the system became more complex and diverse, with the emergence of many sub-classes, groups, and communities within and outside the four main classes.

Slavery in Society in Ancient India

- Slavery was a universal social evil and had its origin even from the early period of history. In India, its origin is closely associated with the caste system.
- The early history of slavery in India is contested because it depends on the translations of terms such as *dasa* and *dasyu*. Greek writer Megasthenes in his work *Indika*, while describing the Maurya Empire states that slavery was banned in Indian society.
- Slavery system in India was very mild and most of the slaves were domestic

slaves who were treated as members of the family. The Dharma Shastras of the 4th century B.C. were in a protesting mood against slavery. Slave trade was prohibited in the Shastras.

- Slavery existed in ancient India, where it is recorded in the Sanskrit Laws of Manu of the 1st century B.C. The institution was little documented until the British colonials in the 19th century made it an object of study because of their desire to abolish it.
- Many Africans travelled to India as slaves and traders, but eventually settled down here to play an important role in India's history of kingdoms, conquests and wars. Some of them, like Malik Ambar in Ahmadnagar (in western India), went on to become powerful military and political figures.

Module 2- Indian Literature, Culture, Tradition, and Practices

- Indian literature is one of the oldest and richest in the world, spanning across various languages, genres, and periods. Some of the major literary works include the Vedas, the Upanishads, the Ramayana, the Mahabharata, the Bhagavad Gita, the Puranas, the Panchatantra, the Kamasutra, and the works of Kalidasa, Valmiki, Vyasa, Bhartrihari, and others.
- Indian culture is diverse and complex, reflecting the influences of various religions, regions, ethnicities, and historical events. Some of the salient features of Indian culture are the concepts of dharma (duty), karma (action and consequence), ahimsa (non-violence), moksha (liberation), and samsara (cycle of rebirth), the caste system, the joint family system, the respect for elders and teachers, the festivals and rituals, the arts and crafts, the music and dance, the cuisine and clothing, and the languages and scripts.
- Indian tradition is the set of beliefs and practices that are inherited from the past and transmitted to the future generations. Some of the important traditions are the rites of passage (such as birth, naming, initiation, marriage, and death), the worship of various gods and goddesses, the pilgrimage to holy places, the celebration of auspicious days and seasons, the observance of fasts and vows, the performance of charity and service, the practice of yoga and meditation, and the preservation of oral and written texts.
- Indian practices are the actions and behaviors that are guided by the values and norms of Indian culture and tradition. Some of the common practices are the greeting of namaste (bowing with folded hands), the wearing of tilak (a mark on the forehead), the application of henna (a dye on the hands and feet), the use of bindi (a dot on the forehead), the wearing of sacred thread (a symbol of initiation), the wearing of sindoor (a red powder on the hair parting), the wearing of mangalsutra (a necklace of black beads), the wearing of bangles (bracelets), the wearing of toe rings, the wearing of earrings and nose rings, the wearing of turban and dhoti (for men), the wearing of saree and salwar kameez (for women), the eating of

vegetarian food, the avoidance of beef and pork, the use of spices and herbs, the use of cow dung and cow urine (for purification and healing), the use of ayurveda (a system of medicine), the use of astrology and numerology (for prediction and guidance), the use of mantra (a sacred sound), the use of yantra (a sacred diagram), the use of tantra (a system of ritual), the use of mudra (a gesture), the use of pranayama (a breathing technique), the use of asana (a posture), the use of chakra (a energy center), the use of kundalini (a dormant power), the use of guru (a spiritual teacher), the use of satsang (a spiritual gathering), the use of bhajan (a devotional song), the use of kirtan (a call-and-response chanting), the use of aarti (a ritual of waving lamps), the use of prasad (a blessed food), the use of darshan (a sight of a deity or a saint), the use of shakti (a feminine power), the use of shiva (a masculine power), the use of ganesh (a elephant-headed god), the use of lakshmi (a goddess of wealth), the use of saraswati (a goddess of learning), the use of durga (a goddess of power), the use of kali (a goddess of destruction), the use of hanuman (a monkey-god), the use of rama (a hero-god), the use of krishna (a lover-god), the use of radha (a beloved of krishna), the use of sita (a wife of rama), the use of ravana (a demon-king), the use of arjuna (a warrior), the use of draupadi (a heroine), the use of pandavas (five brothers), the use of kauravas (hundred cousins), the use of mahabharata (a epic war), the use of ramayana (a epic journey), the use of vedas (a sacred scripture), the use of upanishads (a philosophical scripture), the use of bhagavad gita (a spiritual scripture), the use of puranas (a mythological

Evolution of script in India

- A script is a written symbolisation of speech. It can be based on pictograms, ideograms, syllables, or alphabets.
- India has a long and rich history of writing, dating back to the Indus Valley Civilization (around 2500 BCE), which used a pictographic script known as the Indus script. However, this script remains undeciphered and its relation to other scripts is unclear.
- The earliest deciphered script in India is Brahmi, which emerged around the 3rd century BCE and was used to write the Prakrit languages, such as Pali and Magadhi. Brahmi is considered the ancestor of most modern Indian scripts, as well as some scripts in Sri Lanka, Tibet, Southeast Asia, and Central Asia.
- Brahmi evolved into different regional variants over time, depending on the linguistic and cultural influences. Some of the major branches of Brahmi are:
 - Kharosthi: A script derived from Aramaic and used to write the Gandhari language in northwest India and Central Asia. It was mainly used by the Indo-Greek and Indo-Scythian rulers and declined after the 4th century CE.
 - Gupta: A script that developed from Brahmi and was used to write

Sanskrit and Prakrit languages in northern and central India from the 4th to the 6th century CE. It was the script of the Gupta Empire and is considered the classical form of Brahmi.

- Nagari: A script that emerged from Gupta and was used to write Sanskrit and various Indo-Aryan languages in northern India from the 7th century CE onwards. It is the precursor of the Devanagari script, which is the most widely used script in India today.
- Siddham: A script that originated from Gupta and was used to write Sanskrit and Buddhist texts in eastern India from the 6th to the 12th century CE. It was also transmitted to China, Japan, and Korea, where it was used for religious purposes.
- Sharada: A script that developed from Gupta and was used to write Sanskrit and Kashmiri in the Kashmir region from the 8th to the 20th century CE. It was also used by the Sikhs to write their sacred texts until the 19th century CE.
- Nandinagari: A script that evolved from Gupta and was used to write Sanskrit and Kannada in southern India from the 7th to the 19th century CE. It is similar to Nagari but has some distinctive features, such as a horizontal line above the letters.
- Brahmi also gave rise to various scripts in southern India, which became rounded due to the use of palm leaves as writing material. Some of the major scripts in this category are:
 - Tamil-Brahmi: A script that adapted Brahmi to write the Tamil language in southern India and Sri Lanka from the 3rd century BCE to the 4th century CE. It is the oldest script for Tamil and the source of the modern Tamil script.
 - Vatteluttu: A script that derived from Tamil-Brahmi and was used to write Tamil and Malayalam in southern India and Sri Lanka from the 6th to the 16th century CE. It was gradually replaced by the Grantha and the Malayalam scripts.
 - Grantha: A script that originated from Brahmi and was used to write Sanskrit and Tamil in southern India and Sri Lanka from the 6th to the 19th century CE. It was also the basis of the Sinhala script, which is used to write the Sinhala language in Sri Lanka.
 - Kannada: A script that developed from Brahmi and was used to write the Kannada language in southern India from the 5th century CE onwards. It is also used to write some other Dravidian languages, such as Tulu and Kodava.
 - Telugu: A script that evolved from Brahmi and was used to write the Telugu language in southern India from the 6th century CE onwards. It is also used to write some other Dravidian languages, such as Gondi and Lambadi.
- The evolution of script in India is a complex and fascinating process that reflects the diversity and dynamism of the Indian culture and languages. The modern Indian scripts are the result of centuries of adaptation, innovation, and interaction among various scripts and peoples.

Evolution of languages in India

- India is a multilingual country with over 780 languages spoken by its people.
- The linguistic history of India can be traced back to the prehistoric period when various language families emerged and interacted with each other.
- The major language families in India are the Indo-Aryan, the Dravidian, the Austroasiatic and the Sino-Tibetan.
- The Indo-Aryan languages are derived from the Indo-European languages that originated in Central Asia and spread to India through migrations and invasions. They are spoken by about 75% of the population and include languages such as Hindi, Bengali, Marathi, Urdu, Punjabi and Gujarati.
- The Dravidian languages are native to South India and are spoken by about 20% of the population. They include languages such as Tamil, Telugu, Kannada, Malayalam and Tulu. The origin and relationship of the Dravidian languages with other language families are still debated by scholars.
- The Austroasiatic languages are spoken by about 3% of the population, mostly in the eastern and central regions of India. They include languages such as Santali, Mundari, Khasi and Munda. They are believed to be the oldest languages of India and have influenced the Indo-Aryan and the Dravidian languages.
- The Sino-Tibetan languages are spoken by about 1% of the population, mostly in the northeastern and northern regions of India. They include languages such as Tibetan, Manipuri, Bodo and Meitei. They are related to the languages of China, Tibet, Myanmar and other neighboring countries.
- Apart from these language families, there are also some isolated languages such as Burushaski, Nihali and Andamanese that do not belong to any known language family.
- The evolution of Indian languages has been influenced by various factors such as geography, culture, religion, politics, trade and contact with other languages .
- Some of the major influences on Indian languages are:
 - The Vedic Sanskrit, the oldest form of Sanskrit and the language of the ancient Hindu scriptures, which gave rise to the classical Sanskrit and the Prakrit languages.
 - The Persian and Arabic languages, which were brought by the Muslim invaders and rulers from the 11th to the 18th centuries, and

which enriched the vocabulary and grammar of many Indo-Aryan languages, especially Urdu and Hindustani.

- The Portuguese, Dutch, French and English languages, which were introduced by the European colonizers and traders from the 16th to the 19th centuries, and which influenced the phonology, syntax and lexicon of many Indian languages, especially English .
 - The Hindi language, which was promoted by the Indian nationalist movement and the Indian government as a lingua franca and a symbol of national unity, and which became the official language of the Indian Union along with English.
 - The regional languages, which were recognized by the Indian Constitution as the official languages of the states and the scheduled languages of the country, and which developed their own literary and cultural traditions.
- The evolution of Indian languages is still ongoing as they adapt to the changing social, economic and technological realities of the 21st century. They are also influenced by the global languages such as English, which is widely used as a medium of education, communication and commerce in India.

Harappan Script

- Harappan script is the name given to the symbols found on the inscriptions and seals of the Indus Valley Civilisation, which flourished in the northwest of India and Pakistan from about 2500 to 1900 BCE .
- Harappan script is also known as Indus script, as it was first discovered in the ancient city of Harappa .
- Harappan script consists of about 400 signs, which vary in shape, size and orientation . Some signs are pictorial, representing animals, plants, objects or human figures, while others are abstract or geometric .
- Harappan script is written from right to left, sometimes with a boustrophedon (alternating direction) pattern . The signs are usually arranged in horizontal lines, but sometimes in vertical columns or boxes .
- Harappan script is not yet deciphered, meaning that the language or languages it represents are unknown . Many attempts have been made to read it, but none have gained wide acceptance or consensus among scholars .
- Harappan script is found on various types of materials, such as pottery, stone, metal, ivory, terracotta and wood . The most common and characteristic objects bearing Harappan script are the steatite seals, which were used for trade, administration and ritual purposes .
- Harappan script is one of the oldest writing systems in the world, and a remarkable achievement of the Indus Valley Civilisation . It reflects the culture, society and economy of a highly developed and urbanised civilisation .

Brahmi Script

- Brahmi script is the earliest writing system developed in India after the Indus script.
- It is one of the most influential writing systems; all modern Indian scripts and several hundred scripts found in Southeast and East Asia are derived from Brahmi .
- Brahmi script appeared as a fully developed script in the third century BCE and was used for writing various languages, such as Sanskrit, Prakrit, Pali, and others.
- Brahmi script is mentioned in the ancient Indian texts of Hinduism, Jainism and Buddhism, as well as their Chinese translations.
- Brahmi script was already divided into regional variants at the time of the earliest surviving epigraphy around the 3rd century BC.
- Brahmi script is thought to have been modelled on the Aramaic or Phoenician alphabets, or possibly derived from the Indus script .
- Brahmi script consists of 33 consonants and 9 vowels, and is written from left to right.
- Brahmi script has a distinctive feature of representing each consonant with an inherent vowel /a/, which can be changed by adding diacritical marks.
- Brahmi script also has special symbols for numerals, punctuation, and ligatures.

The Vedas

- The Vedas are a large body of religious texts originating in ancient India.
- The Vedas are composed in Vedic Sanskrit, the oldest layer of Sanskrit literature and the oldest scriptures of Hinduism.
- The word Veda means “knowledge” in Sanskrit, and the Vedas are thought to contain the fundamental knowledge relating to the underlying cause of, function of, and personal response to existence.
- The Vedas are divided into four collections: the Rigveda, the Yajurveda, the Samaveda and the Atharvaveda.
- The Rigveda is the oldest and most important of the Vedas, containing 1,028 hymns to various gods and natural phenomena.
- The Yajurveda contains the formulas and rituals for performing sacrifices and ceremonies.
- The Samaveda consists of musical chants and melodies for the Rigvedic hymns.
- The Atharvaveda contains spells, charms, and magical incantations for various purposes.
- The Vedas also have six supplementary texts called the Vedangas, which deal with grammar, phonetics, astronomy, ritual, etymology, and metrics.
- The Vedas have regulated the social, legal, domestic and religious customs of Hindus up to the present day, and all the obligatory duties of Hindus at birth, marriage, death etc. are guided by Vedic rituals.

The Upanishads

- The Upanishads are ancient Hindu scriptures that explore the nature of reality, the self, and the supreme being.
- The word Upanishad means “to sit down closely”, implying the intimate dialogue between a teacher and a student.
- The Upanishads are part of the Vedas, the oldest and most authoritative Hindu texts, but they are considered the end or the essence of the Vedas (Vedanta).
- There are more than 200 Upanishads, but only about 14 are considered the most important and influential. They are classified according to the four Vedas they belong to: Rigveda, Samaveda, Yajurveda, and Atharvaveda.
- The Upanishads contain various philosophical concepts and teachings, such as the doctrine of karma (action and its consequences), the doctrine of samsara (cycle of rebirth), the doctrine of moksha (liberation from samsara), the doctrine of atman (the true self), and the doctrine of brahman (the ultimate reality).
- The Upanishads emphasize the identity of atman and brahman, and the need to realize this identity through meditation, ethical conduct, and spiritual discipline. They also present various methods and paths to achieve this realization, such as the path of knowledge (jnana), the path of devotion (bhakti), the path of action (karma), and the path of yoga.
- The Upanishads have influenced many schools of Hindu philosophy, such as Advaita Vedanta, Vishishtadvaita, Dvaita, and others. They have also inspired many thinkers and writers from other traditions, such as Buddhism, Jainism, Sikhism, Islam, and Western philosophy.

The Ramayana

- The Ramayana is a Hindu epic about the life of the legendary Prince Rama of Kosala .
- Rama is the virtuous, wise, and powerful son of King Dasaratha, who wants him to succeed him as king .
- Rama marries the beautiful Sita, the princess of Mithila, after lifting and stringing the bow of Siva, a divine feat .
- Rama is exiled from his homeland for 14 years by his stepmother Kaikeyi, who wants her son Bharata to be king instead .
- Rama, Sita, and Rama’s brother Lakshmana go to the forest, where they encounter many sages, friends, and foes .
- Rama battles the demon king Ravana, who abducts Sita with the help of a golden deer and a disguised demon .
- Rama allies with the monkey king Sugriva and his army, and the bear king Jambavan and his army, to search for Sita and fight Ravana .
- Rama’s faithful devotee Hanuman, the son of the wind god, flies across the ocean to Lanka, where Ravana’s kingdom is, and finds Sita in captivity .
- Hanuman delivers Rama’s message and ring to Sita, and sets fire to Lanka

with his tail after being captured and tortured by Ravana's forces .

- Rama and his allies build a bridge across the ocean and reach Lanka, where they engage in a fierce war with Ravana and his army .
- Rama defeats Ravana with the help of a divine arrow given by the sage Agastya, and rescues Sita .
- Rama and Sita return from exile and are welcomed by the people of Ayodhya, who light lamps to celebrate their arrival .
- Rama becomes king and rules with justice and righteousness .
- The Ramayana teaches the values of dharma (duty), karma (action), and moksha (liberation), and the importance of loyalty, devotion, and courage .

The Mahabharata

- The Mahabharata is one of the two major Sanskrit epics of India, along with the Ramayana .
- It is a long and complex narrative that covers the history, culture, religion, and philosophy of ancient India.
- It tells the story of the struggle for the throne of Hastinapura between two groups of cousins, the Kauravas and the Pandavas .
- The main events of the epic are the Kurukshetra War, a 18-day battle between the Kauravas and the Pandavas, and the Bhagavad Gita, a dialogue between the Pandava prince Arjuna and the god Krishna, who advises him on his duty and dharma .
- The Mahabharata is also a source of moral and spiritual guidance for Hindus, as it contains various stories, parables, and teachings on dharma, karma, reincarnation, and liberation .
- The Mahabharata is traditionally attributed to the sage Vyasa, who is also a character in the epic. It is believed to have been composed over a period of centuries, from the 4th century BCE to the 4th century CE .
- The Mahabharata is divided into 18 books or parvas, each containing several chapters or adhyayas. The total number of verses in the epic is about 74,000, making it one of the longest poems in the world .

Puranas

- Puranas are a genre of ancient Indian literature that contain stories, legends, myths, and other traditional lore about various aspects of Hinduism.
- Puranas are considered as the fifth Veda, after the four Vedas (Rig, Yajur, Sama, and Atharva), which are the primary scriptures of Hinduism.
- Puranas are written in Sanskrit verse, mostly in the form of narrative couplets, and date from the 4th century BCE to about 1000 CE.
- Puranas are classified into two categories: Mahapuranas (major Puranas) and Upapuranas (minor Puranas). There are 18 Mahapuranas and 18 Upapuranas, although some sources list more or less.
- Puranas are devoted to different deities, such as Vishnu, Shiva, Brahma,

Lakshmi, Ganesha, etc., and cover various topics, such as cosmology, creation, genealogy, history, geography, ethics, rituals, festivals, etc.

- Puranas are known for their symbolic and allegorical meanings, and their influence on Hindu art, culture, and philosophy.

Buddhist Literature in Pali, Prakrit and Sanskrit

- Buddhist literature is the collection of writings that preserve the teachings and traditions of Buddhism.
- Pali, Prakrit and Sanskrit are three ancient languages that were used to compose Buddhist texts in different regions and periods of history.
- Pali is a Middle Indo-Aryan language that is closely related to the language spoken by the Buddha in the 6th century BCE. It is the canonical language of Theravada Buddhism, the oldest surviving branch of Buddhism. Pali literature includes the Tipitaka (the three baskets of scriptures), the commentaries, the sub-commentaries, and the chronicles of Sri Lanka and Southeast Asia .
- Prakrit is a generic term for any Middle Indo-Aryan language that is derived from Sanskrit. There are many varieties of Prakrit, such as Sauraseni, Maharastri, Magadhi and Gandhari, that reflect the regional and temporal diversity of India. Prakrit literature includes the canonical texts of Mahayana Buddhism, the non-canonical texts of Hinayana Buddhism, the Jaina scriptures, and the secular works of poetry, drama, and prose .
- Sanskrit is a classical Indo-Aryan language that is the primary language of Hinduism and a major language of Buddhism and Jainism. Sanskrit literature includes the Mahayana sutras, the Tantric texts, the philosophical treatises, the biographies of the Buddha and the Buddhist saints, the poetic works, and the historical records .
- Buddhist literature in Pali, Prakrit and Sanskrit reflects the rich and diverse cultural, religious, and intellectual heritage of India and its neighboring regions. It also provides valuable insights into the development and transformation of Buddhist thought and practice over time and space.

Jain Literature in Pali, Prakrit and Sanskrit

- Jain literature refers to the literature of the Jain religion, which is one of the oldest and major religions of India.
- Jain literature is a vast and ancient literary tradition, which was initially transmitted orally by the teachers and disciples of Jainism.
- Jain literature is composed in various languages, such as Prakrit, Pali, Sanskrit, Apabhramsha, Hindi, Gujarati, Tamil, Kannada, and Rajasthani.
- The most important and authoritative Jain literature is the canonical literature, which consists of the sacred scriptures of the Jains, known as the Agamas or Siddhantas.

- The canonical literature is written in Ardhamagadhi, a Prakrit language that was spoken by Mahavira, the 24th and last Tirthankara (ford-maker) of Jainism.
- The canonical literature is divided into two main categories: the Angas (limbs) and the Upangas (subsidiary limbs). The Angas are 12 in number and contain the core teachings of Jainism, such as the doctrine of karma, the theory of non-violence, the code of conduct, and the cosmology. The Upangas are 12 in number and contain supplementary teachings, such as the legends of the Tirthankaras, the stories of the previous lives of Mahavira, and the description of the six substances of reality.
- The canonical literature also includes other texts, such as the Prakirnas (miscellaneous), the Chhedasutras (disciplinary), the Mulasutras (fundamental), and the Nandisutras (introductory).
- The canonical literature was compiled and edited by the councils of Jain monks, who also added commentaries and sub-commentaries to the original texts. The most important councils were held at Pataliputra, Mathura, and Valabhi, between the 4th century BCE and the 6th century CE.
- The canonical literature is considered to be the oldest and most authentic source of Jainism, but it is not the only source. Jain literature also includes non-canonical literature, which consists of various texts written by Jain scholars, poets, and saints in different languages and genres.
- The non-canonical literature is rich and diverse, and covers various topics, such as philosophy, ethics, logic, grammar, mathematics, astronomy, astrology, medicine, art, architecture, and literature.
- The non-canonical literature is written in various languages, such as Pali, Sanskrit, Apabhramsha, Hindi, Gujarati, Tamil, Kannada, and Rajasthani. Some of the prominent languages and their literary works are:
 - Pali: Pali is an Indo-Aryan language that was used by the early Buddhists and Jains. Some of the Jain texts written in Pali are the Vasudevahindi, the Harivamsapurana, and the Padmanadi.
 - Sanskrit: Sanskrit is the classical and literary language of India, and the most widely used language by the Jain scholars and poets. Some of the Jain texts written in Sanskrit are the Tattvarthasutra, the Karmagrantha, the Pramanamimamsa, the Nyayakumudacandra, the Upamitibhavaprapanchakatha, and the Mahapurana.
 - Prakrit: Prakrit is a collective term for the vernacular languages that were derived from Sanskrit and spoken by the common people. Some of the Jain texts written in Prakrit are the Gathasaptasati, the Samayasara, the Niyamasara, the Bhaktamara Stotra, and the Ravanavadha.

- Apabhramsha: Apabhramsha is a transitional language that developed from Prakrit and influenced the modern languages of India. Some of the Jain texts written in Apabhramsha are the Vikramarjuna Vijaya, the Kuvalayamala, the Prabandhacintamani, and the Lilavati.
- Hindi: Hindi is the most widely spoken language of India, and the official language of the Indian government. Some of the Jain texts written in Hindi are the Ramacaritamanasa, the Padmaprabha Carita, the Yogasara, and the Bhavabhuti.
- Gujarati: Gujarati is the language of the state of Gujarat, and the mother tongue of Mahatma Gandhi. Some of the Jain texts written in Gujarati

Kautilya's Arthashastra

- The Arthashastra is an ancient Indian treatise on statecraft, politics, economics, military strategy, and social organization.
- It is attributed to Kautilya, also known as Chanakya, Vishnugupta, or the Prime Minister of the Mauryan Empire under Chandragupta Maurya (c. 321-c. 297 BCE).
- The Arthashastra consists of 15 books, 150 chapters, and about 6000 verses. It covers topics such as the nature and duties of the king, the structure and functions of the government, the principles and methods of diplomacy, the laws and administration of justice, the defense and security of the state, the taxation and revenue collection, the management and regulation of trade and commerce, the welfare and development of the people, and the ethics and morality of public life.
- The Arthashastra is considered one of the earliest and most comprehensive works on political science and statecraft in the world. It reflects the political, social, and economic conditions of ancient India, as well as the influence of various schools of thought, such as Vedism, Buddhism, Jainism, and Samkhya.
- The Arthashastra is also known for its pragmatic and realistic approach to governance, based on the concept of artha, or material welfare. Kautilya advocates a balance between the four goals of human life: dharma (righteousness), artha (wealth), kama (pleasure), and moksha (liberation). He also emphasizes the importance of peace, stability, and prosperity for the state and the people, and suggests various strategies and tactics to achieve them, such as diplomacy, espionage, war, alliances, and subversion.
- The Arthashastra is a valuable source of information and insight for the study of ancient Indian history, culture, and civilization. It also offers relevant and timeless lessons and principles for the modern world, especially in the fields of politics, economics, and international relations.

Famous Sanskrit Authors in India

Sanskrit is one of the oldest and most influential languages of India. It has a rich literary tradition that spans over two millennia. Many Sanskrit authors have contributed to various genres of literature, such as poetry, drama, philosophy, grammar, and religious texts. Here are some of the most famous Sanskrit authors in India:

- **Kalidasa:** He is considered to be the greatest Sanskrit poet and dramatist of India. He lived in the 4th or 5th century CE, during the Gupta period. He wrote three epic poems (Mahakavyas), namely Raghuvamsa, Kumarasambhava, and Meghaduta. He also wrote three plays, namely Malavikagnimitra, Vikramorvasiya, and Abhijnanasakuntala. His works are known for their elegance, beauty, and sophistication of language and imagery.
- **Bhasa:** He is one of the earliest and most prolific Sanskrit dramatists of India. He is said to have lived around the 3rd century CE, but his works were rediscovered only in the 20th century. He wrote thirteen plays, based on the epics Mahabharata and Ramayana, and the Puranas. His plays are characterized by their realism, humor, and dramatic techniques.
- **Bhartrihari:** He is a renowned Sanskrit poet and philosopher of the 5th century CE. He is best known for his three collections of verses, namely Satkatraya, which consists of Niti Sataka (ethical maxims), Sringara Sataka (erotic poems), and Vairagya Sataka (renunciation poems). His poems are marked by their brevity, wit, and wisdom.
- **Banabhatta:** He is a celebrated Sanskrit poet and prose writer of the 7th century CE. He was the court poet of King Harshavardhana of Kannauj. He wrote two historical romances, namely Harshacharita (the biography of Harsha) and Kadambari (a love story of a prince and a princess). His works are noted for their ornate style, complex plot, and vivid descriptions.
- **Amir Khusrow:** He is a famous Persian and Urdu poet, who also wrote some works in Sanskrit. He lived in the 13th and 14th centuries CE, during the Delhi Sultanate period. He wrote a Sanskrit treatise on music, called Nuh Sipihir (Nine Skies), which contains verses praising the Hindu deities and music. He also wrote a Sanskrit poem, called Khaliq Bari (The Creator's Work), which describes the creation of the world.
- **Sri Aurobindo:** He is a modern Sanskrit poet and philosopher, who also played a key role in the Indian independence movement. He lived in the 19th and 20th centuries CE. He wrote several works in Sanskrit, such as Savitri (an epic poem based on the Vedic legend of Savitri and Satyavan), The Life Divine (a philosophical treatise on the nature of reality and human destiny), and The Synthesis of Yoga (a guide to the practice of integral yoga). His works are characterized by their spiritual vision, poetic beauty, and intellectual depth.
- **Satyavrat Shastri:** He is a contemporary Sanskrit poet and scholar, who won the Jnanpith Award, India's highest literary honor, in 2009. He has

written several works in Sanskrit, such as Ramakirtimahakavyam (an epic poem on the life of Rama), Sribodhisattvacharitam (a biography of the Buddha), and Srigurugovindasimhacharitam (a biography of Guru Gobind Singh). His works are admired for their classical style, poetic skill, and cultural diversity .

Telugu Literature

- Telugu literature is the body of works written in the Telugu language, a Dravidian language spoken mainly in the Indian states of Andhra Pradesh and Telangana.
- Telugu literature consists of various genres, such as poems, short stories, novels, plays, and song lyrics, among others.
- Telugu literature dates back to at least the middle of the first millennium CE, but the first extant works are from the 11th century CE, when the Mahabharata was first translated into Telugu by Nannaya Bhatta.
- Telugu literature flourished under the patronage of various dynasties, such as the Chalukyas, the Kakatiyas, the Vijayanagara Empire, the Qutb Shahis, and the Asaf Jahis.
- Telugu literature can be broadly divided into four periods: Ancient (11th to 14th century), Medieval (15th to 18th century), Modern (19th to 20th century), and Contemporary (21st century).
- Some of the prominent Telugu writers and poets are Nannaya, Tikkana, Errana, Srinatha, Potana, Allasani Peddana, Krishnadevaraya, Pingali Suranna, Kandukuri Veeresalingam, Gurajada Apparao, Viswanatha Satyanarayana, Sri Sri, C. Narayana Reddy, and Jnanpith awardees Gopichand, Viswanatha Satyanarayana, C. Narayana Reddy and Ravuri Bharadhwaja.

Kannada Literature

- Kannada literature is the body of written works in the Kannada language, a member of the Dravidian family spoken mainly in the Indian state of Karnataka.
- The earliest records in Kannada are inscriptions dating from the 6th century AD onward.
- Kannada literature has a rich and diverse history, spanning over a thousand years and covering various genres and forms, such as poetry, prose, drama, grammar, philosophy, history, biography, chronicles, cuisine, dictionaries and encyclopedias.
- Kannada literature can be broadly divided into three main periods: classical, medieval and modern.
- The classical period (9th to 14th century) is marked by the emergence of the champu style of prose and verse, which combines prose narration with interspersed verses. Some of the notable works of this period are Pampa's Adipurana and Vikramarjuna Vijaya, Ranna's Gadayuddha and

Ajitanatha Purana, and Janna's Yashodhara Charite.

- The medieval period (14th to 18th century) is characterized by the development of various literary forms, such as vachana (sayings), tripadi (three-line verse), ragale (lyrical verse), shatpadi (six-line verse), kavya (poetic composition), and prabandha (narrative prose). Some of the prominent writers of this period are Basava, Allama Prabhu, Akka Mahadevi, Harihara, Raghavanka, Kumaravyasa, Sarvajna, Purandara Dasa, Kanaka Dasa, and Lakshmis.
- The modern period (19th century to present) is influenced by the social and political changes brought by the British rule, the nationalist movement, and the linguistic reorganization of states. The modern Kannada literature reflects the themes of social reform, nationalism, patriotism, freedom, democracy, humanism, and individualism. Some of the eminent writers of this period are B.M. Srikantiah, Kuvempu, D.R. Bendre, Shivaram Karanth, Masti Venkatesha Iyengar, K. Shivarama Karantha, Gopalakrishna Adiga, U.R. Ananthamurthy, Girish Karnad, P. Lankesh, and Chandrashekhara Kambara.

Malayalam Literature

- Malayalam literature is the literature written in Malayalam, a South-Dravidian language spoken in the Indian state of Kerala.
- The earliest extant literary work in Malayalam is Ramacharitam, a poem based on the Hindu epic Ramayana, composed in the late 12th or early 13th century .
- Malayalam literature has a rich and diverse history, influenced by Sanskrit, Tamil, Arabic, Portuguese, English and other languages .
- Malayalam literature can be broadly divided into four periods: classical, medieval, modern and contemporary.
- The classical period (13th to 16th century) is marked by the emergence of Manipravalam, a mixed language of Malayalam and Sanskrit, used for courtly poetry and drama . Some of the notable works of this period are Unniyachi Charitam, Niranam poets, Krishnagatha and Ramakathapattu.
- The medieval period (17th to 19th century) is characterized by the development of various genres such as Kathakali, Thullal, Koodiyattam, Padayani and folk songs . Some of the prominent writers of this period are Thunchaththu Ezhuthachan, Kunchan Nambiar, Melpathur Narayana Bhattathiri and Poonthanam.
- The modern period (20th century) witnessed the emergence of prose, novel, short story, essay, criticism, biography, autobiography and other forms of literature in Malayalam . Some of the influential writers of this period are Kumaran Asan, Vallathol Narayana Menon, Ulloor S. Parameswara Iyer, G. Sankara Kurup, Thakazhi Sivasankara Pillai, M. T. Vasudevan Nair, O. V. Vijayan, Kamala Surayya and M. Mukundan.
- The contemporary period (21st century) is marked by the emergence of new voices, themes, styles and experiments in Malayalam literature . Some

of the notable writers of this period are K. R. Meera, Benyamin, Anand, Subhash Chandran, N. S. Madhavan and T. D. Ramakrishnan.

Sangama Literature in India

- Sangama literature is the earliest known literature in the Tamil language, dating from the 1st to the 4th century CE.
- Sangama literature is composed of poems that deal with two main themes: love (akam) and heroism (puram).
- Sangama literature is attributed to three literary academies (sangams) that were patronized by the kings of the Pandya dynasty in Madurai, India .
- Sangama literature consists of eight anthologies (ettuthokai) of short poems, ten long poems (pattuppattu), and two grammatical and prosodic works (tolkappiyam and eelattu).
- Sangama literature reflects the social, political, religious, and cultural aspects of ancient Tamil society, as well as its values, ethics, and aesthetics.

Northern Indian languages

- Northern Indian languages are mainly **Indo-Aryan languages** that are spoken by the people of North India .
- The most widely spoken language in North India is **Hindi**, which is also the official language of India and has many regional dialects and variations .
- Other major languages of North India include **Urdu**, which is the official language of Jammu and Kashmir and has a close affinity with Hindi ; **Punjabi**, which is the official language of Punjab and has a distinct script called Gurmukhi ; **Kashmiri**, which is the official language of Ladakh and has a rich literary tradition ; and **Dogri**, which is the official language of Jammu and has a strong influence of Punjabi and Sanskrit .
- Some other languages of North India are **Bihari languages**, such as Bhojpuri, Magadhi and Maithili, which are spoken in Bihar and parts of Uttar Pradesh and Jharkhand ; **Pahari languages**, such as Garhwali, Kumaoni and Nepali, which are spoken in the Himalayan regions of Uttarakhand, Himachal Pradesh and Nepal ; and various other **aboriginal languages**, such as Bhili, Gondi and Santali, which are spoken by the tribal communities of North India .
- The languages of North India have different **scripts, grammars, vocabularies** and **cultural influences**, but they also share some common features, such as the use of **Sanskrit loanwords**, the **subject-object-verb** word order, the **retroflex consonants** and the **gender and number agreement**.
- The languages of North India are also influenced by other languages, such as **Persian, Arabic, Turkish, English** and **Dravidian languages**, due to the historical and cultural interactions of North India with other regions

and countries.

North Indian Literature

- North Indian literature refers to the literature produced in the languages of northern India, such as Hindi, Urdu, Punjabi, Kashmiri, Rajasthani, etc.
- North Indian literature is influenced by the ancient Indian background, which includes two Sanskrit epic poems, the Mahabharata and Ramayana, as well as the Bhagavata-purana and the other Puranas.
- North Indian literature also reflects the cultural and religious diversity of the region, as well as the historical and political events that shaped its history, such as the Delhi Sultanate, the Mughal Empire, the British Raj, the Partition, and the Independence.
- Some of the prominent genres of North Indian literature are poetry, drama, novel, short story, essay, biography, autobiography, and travelogue.
- Some of the notable authors of North Indian literature are Kabir, Tulsidas, Mirabai, Surdas, Amir Khusrow, Mir Taqi Mir, Ghalib, Premchand, Bhisham Sahni, Amrita Pritam, Munshi Premchand, Rajendra Yadav, Mahadevi Varma, Harivansh Rai Bachchan, Nirmal Verma, and Ruskin Bond.

Persian Literature in India

- Persian literature in India refers to the literary works produced in the Persian language by writers and poets who lived in the Indian subcontinent or had connections with it.
- Persian literature in India began with the rise of Persian-speaking people to the throne of the Delhi Sultanate in the 13th century, which resulted in the spread of the Persian language and culture in India.
- Persian literature in India reached its peak during the Mughal Empire (1526-1857), which patronized Persian poets, historians, and scholars and made Persian the official language of administration and court.
- Persian literature in India reflects the thought, social structure, culture, and political institutions of the medieval period, as well as the spirit of the age, which was marked by religious diversity, cultural synthesis, and artistic innovation.
- Persian literature in India can be divided into four main genres: poetry, prose, historiography, and Sufism.
 - Poetry: Persian poetry in India followed the classical forms and themes of Persian literature, such as the ghazal (lyric), the masnavi (narrative), the qasida (panegyric), and the rubai (quatrain). Some of the most famous Persian poets in India were Amir Khusrow, Abdur Rahim Khan-i-Khanan, Mirza Ghalib, and Bedil.
 - Prose: Persian prose in India mainly consisted of translations, adaptations, and commentaries of Arabic and Sanskrit works on various

subjects, such as philosophy, medicine, astronomy, and law. Some of the notable Persian prose writers in India were Al-Biruni, Fakhr al-Din al-Razi, and Abul Fazl.

- Historiography: Persian historiography in India was a rich and diverse field that recorded the events, personalities, and achievements of the Delhi Sultanate and the Mughal Empire, as well as the regional kingdoms and dynasties. Some of the prominent Persian historians in India were Ziauddin Barani, Abul Fazl, and Khafi Khan.
- Sufism: Persian Sufism in India was a mystical and spiritual movement that influenced the religious and cultural life of the people, especially the Muslims. Persian Sufism in India produced many works of poetry, prose, and hagiography that expressed the doctrines, practices, and experiences of the Sufi orders and saints. Some of the renowned Persian Sufi writers in India were Nizamuddin Auliya, Amir Khusrow, and Shah Waliullah.
- Persian literature in India declined in the 19th century, due to the rise of English and Urdu as the languages of education and literature, as well as the political and social changes brought by the British colonial rule.
- Persian literature in India is a valuable source of knowledge and insight into the history, culture, and civilization of medieval India, as well as a testament to the literary and artistic achievements of the Persianate world.

Urdu Literature in India

- Urdu literature is the literature written in the Urdu language, which is spoken by the Muslims of Pakistan and northern India .
- Urdu literature is influenced by the Persian, Arabic, and Turkish languages, as well as the local languages of the Indian subcontinent, such as Hindi, Punjabi, Sindhi, and Gujarati.
- Urdu literature is mainly known for its poetry, especially the forms of ghazal and nazm, which are lyrical expressions of love, longing, and mysticism. Some of the famous poets of Urdu literature are Mir Taqi Mir, Mirza Ghalib, Allama Iqbal, Faiz Ahmed Faiz, and Ahmad Faraz.
- Urdu literature also has a rich tradition of prose, including novels, short stories, essays, and biographies. Some of the notable prose writers of Urdu literature are Munshi Premchand, Saadat Hasan Manto, Ismat Chughtai, Qurratulain Hyder, and Intizar Hussain.
- Urdu literature reflects the cultural, social, and political realities of the Indian subcontinent, especially the experiences of the Muslim community under colonialism, partition, and independence. Urdu literature also explores the themes of identity, religion, nationalism, feminism, and humanism.
- Urdu literature is a valuable source of knowledge and insight into the history, culture, and diversity of the Indian subcontinent, as well as the artistic and intellectual achievements of the Urdu language .

Hindi Literature

Hindi literature is the literature written in the Hindi language, which includes various dialects and scripts. Hindi literature has a long and rich history, dating back to the 11th century. Some of the main features and topics of Hindi literature are:

- Hindi literature is influenced by Sanskrit, Prakrit, Pali, Persian, Arabic, Urdu and other languages.
- Hindi literature is divided into four periods: Adikal (the early period), Bhaktikal (the devotional period), Ritikal (the scholastic period) and Adhunik (the modern period).
- Hindi literature covers various genres, such as poetry, prose, drama, fiction, biography, autobiography, essay, criticism, satire, humor, travelogue, etc.
- Hindi literature reflects the religious, philosophical, social, cultural, political and historical aspects of India and its people.
- Hindi literature has produced many eminent writers, poets, scholars and thinkers, such as Kabir, Tulsidas, Surdas, Mirabai, Premchand, Jaishankar Prasad, Mahadevi Varma, Ramdhari Singh Dinkar, Harivansh Rai Bachchan, Munshi Premchand, Bhisham Sahni, Nirmal Verma, Mahasweta Devi, etc.

Some of the examples of Hindi literature are:

- Ramcharitmanas, an epic poem by Tulsidas, based on the life of Lord Rama.
- Madhushala, a collection of quatrains by Harivansh Rai Bachchan, based on the theme of wine and life.
- Godan, a novel by Munshi Premchand, depicting the plight of peasants in colonial India.
- Rashmirathi, a poetic rendition of the Mahabharata by Ramdhari Singh Dinkar, focusing on the character of Karna.
- Tamas, a novel by Bhisham Sahni, based on the partition of India and Pakistan.
- Agyeya, a collection of short stories by Nirmal Verma, exploring the themes of alienation, identity and existentialism.
- Hazaar Chaurasi Ki Maa, a novel by Mahasweta Devi, highlighting the Naxalite movement and its impact on a mother.

Module 3- Indian Religion, Philosophy, and Practices

- This module covers the main aspects of Indian religion, philosophy, and practices, such as Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, Sikhism, and their historical development, doctrines, scriptures, rituals, ethics, and social implications.
- Some of the learning objectives of this module are:
 - To understand the diversity and complexity of Indian religious traditions and their interactions with each other and with other cultures.

- To explore the key concepts and themes of Indian philosophy, such as dharma, karma, samsara, moksha, nirvana, ahimsa, and yoga.
- To examine the various forms and expressions of Indian religious practices, such as puja, meditation, pilgrimage, festivals, and art.
- To analyze the challenges and opportunities faced by Indian religions in the modern world, such as secularism, globalization, pluralism, and social justice.
- Some of the topics covered in this module are:
 - The origins and development of Hinduism, its major sects, gods and goddesses, scriptures, and schools of thought.
 - The life and teachings of the Buddha, the spread and diversity of Buddhism, its main branches, doctrines, scriptures, and practices.
 - The emergence and evolution of Jainism, its core principles, scriptures, sects, and practices.
 - The formation and growth of Sikhism, its founder and gurus, scriptures, doctrines, ethics, and practices.
 - The similarities and differences among Indian religions, their common values and goals, and their dialogues and debates with each other and with other traditions.
 - The impact of colonialism, nationalism, reform movements, and social movements on Indian religions, and their responses to contemporary issues and challenges.

Pre-Vedic Religion in India

- Pre-Vedic religion refers to the religious beliefs and practices of the people who lived in the Indus Valley or Harappan civilization, before the arrival of the Indo-Aryan speakers who brought the Vedic religion to India.
- The Pre-Vedic religion was mainly based on the worship of nature, such as trees, animals, rivers, mountains, and celestial bodies.
- The Pre-Vedic religion also involved the use of symbols, seals, and figurines, which may have represented deities, cults, or rituals.
- Some of the prominent symbols and images found in the Pre-Vedic religion are the swastika, the pipal tree, the bull, the unicorn, the mother goddess, and the Pashupati seal.
- The Pre-Vedic religion was likely influenced by the cultures and religions of Mesopotamia, Sumeria, and Elam, as there is evidence of trade and contact between these regions.
- The Pre-Vedic religion was not based on any written texts or scriptures, but rather on oral traditions and practices that were transmitted from generation to generation.
- The Pre-Vedic religion was gradually replaced or assimilated by the Vedic religion, which was brought by the Indo-Aryan speakers who migrated to India from the Central Asian steppes around 1500 BCE.
- The Vedic religion was based on the worship of many gods, such as Indra, Varuna, Agni, Surya, and Rudra, who were associated with natural

phenomena and cosmic forces .

- The Vedic religion also involved the performance of sacrifices, rituals, and hymns, which were codified in the sacred texts known as the Vedas .
- The Vedic religion was the oldest stratum of religious activity in India for which there exist written materials.

Vedic Religion in India

- Vedic religion was the religion of the ancient Indo-European-speaking peoples who entered India about 1500 BCE from the region of present-day Iran.
- It takes its name from the collections of sacred texts known as the Vedas, which are the oldest layer of Sanskrit literature and the oldest scriptures of Hinduism.
- There are four Vedas: the Rigveda, the Yajurveda, the Samaveda and the Atharvaveda. Each Veda consists of four parts: the Samhitas (hymns), the Brahmanas (ritual instructions), the Aranyakas (forest texts) and the Upanishads (philosophical discourses).
- Vedic religion was based on the performance of sacrifices (yajna) to various gods (devas) who represented natural forces and cosmic principles. The priests (brahmins) were the mediators between the human and the divine realms.
- Vedic religion also had a strong ethical dimension, as the concept of karma (action and its consequences) and dharma (duty and cosmic order) were central to its worldview. The Vedic texts also contain hymns, myths, cosmogonies, cosmologies, genealogies, legends, rituals, laws, moral codes and ethical teachings.
- Vedic religion gradually evolved into Brahmanism or Brahminism, which emphasized the supremacy of the brahmins and the authority of the Vedas. Brahmanism also developed the doctrines of reincarnation, transmigration of souls, liberation (moksha) and the four stages of life (ashrama).
- Vedic religion influenced and was influenced by other religious traditions in India, such as Buddhism, Jainism, Shaivism, Vaishnavism and Shaktism. Some of these traditions rejected the authority of the Vedas and the brahmins, and offered alternative paths to salvation.
- Vedic religion is the oldest stratum of religious activity in India for which there exist written materials. It is considered the precursor of Hinduism, which is the dominant religion in India today.

Buddhism in India

- Buddhism is an ancient Indian religion that originated in the 6th century BCE in the region of Magadha (now Bihar) and spread throughout northern India and beyond .
- Buddhism is based on the teachings and life experiences of Siddhartha Gautama, also known as the Buddha (the awakened one), who attained

enlightenment under a bodhi tree and taught the four noble truths and the eightfold path to end suffering and achieve nirvana .

- Buddhism attracted many followers from different social classes and backgrounds, especially those who were dissatisfied with the rigid caste system and ritualistic practices of Hinduism. Buddhism also received patronage from some kings and emperors, such as Ashoka, Kanishka, and Harshavardhana .
- Buddhism developed into various schools and traditions over time, such as Theravada, Mahayana, Vajrayana, and Zen, each with its own doctrines, scriptures, and practices. Buddhism also influenced and interacted with other religions and cultures, such as Jainism, Hinduism, Islam, and Tibetan Buddhism .
- Buddhism declined in India from the 8th century CE onwards, due to various factors, such as the invasion of Muslim rulers, the revival of Hinduism, the corruption and decadence of Buddhist monasteries, and the loss of support from the masses and the elites .
- Buddhism still survives in some regions of India, such as Ladakh, Sikkim, Arunachal Pradesh, and Maharashtra, where it is practiced by different ethnic groups and communities. Buddhism also has followers among the Dalits, the former untouchables, who converted to Buddhism under the leadership of B.R. Ambedkar in the 20th century .
- Buddhism remains an important part of India's cultural and spiritual heritage, and India continues to host and participate in various events and initiatives to promote and preserve Buddhism, such as the International Buddhist Conclave, the International Conference on Shared Buddhist Heritage, and the Shanghai Cooperation Organization (SCO) Forum on Buddhism .

Jainism in India

- Jainism is an Indian religion that teaches the path to enlightenment is through nonviolence and reducing harm to living things as much as possible.
- Jainism originated in India at least 2,500 years ago and is one of the world's oldest religions.
- The spiritual goal of Jainism is to become liberated from the endless cycle of rebirth and to achieve an all-knowing state called moksha.
- Jains follow the teachings of 24 spiritual leaders called tirthankaras, the last of whom was Mahavira, who lived in the 6th century BCE.
- Jains practice five main principles: ahimsa (nonviolence), satya (truthfulness), asteya (non-stealing), brahmacharya (celibacy or chastity), and aparigraha (non-attachment or non-possessiveness).
- Jains are divided into two major sects: Digambara (sky-clad) and Svetambara (white-clad), based on their views on asceticism, scriptures, and the status of women.
- Jains are the only religious group in India where a majority say they are

members of a higher General Category caste, according to a 2020 Pew Research Center survey.

- Jains constitute about 0.4% of India's population, with the highest concentration in the states of Maharashtra, Rajasthan, Gujarat, and Madhya Pradesh.
- Jains have contributed to various fields of Indian culture, such as art, architecture, literature, philosophy, education, and social reform.
- Jains have been awarded the minority status by the Government of India in 2014, which grants them certain rights and privileges in education and employment.

Six System Indian Philosophy

- The six systems of Indian philosophy are Nyaya, Vaisheshika, Samkhya, Yoga, Purva Mimamsa and Uttara Mimamsa or Vedanta .
- These systems represent different traditions of philosophical thought that originated in the Indian subcontinent and explore various aspects of reality, knowledge, ethics and spirituality .
- Each system has its own founder, texts, concepts, methods and goals.
- The six systems are briefly described below:
 - Nyaya: Founded by Akshapada Gautama in the 2nd century BCE, this system deals with logic and epistemology. It proposes four sources of valid knowledge: perception, inference, comparison and testimony. It also analyzes the nature of arguments, fallacies, categories, relations and causation .
 - Vaisheshika: Founded by Kanada in the 6th century BCE, this system is known as the atomistic school of Indian philosophy. It postulates that all objects in the physical universe are reducible to a finite number of atoms, which are eternal, indivisible and distinct. It also classifies the substances, qualities, actions, universals and inherence of reality .
 - Samkhya: Founded by Kapila in the 6th century BCE, this system is an extremely complex school of philosophy that goes deep into the understanding of the creator and the creation. It proposes a dualistic ontology of purusha (consciousness) and prakriti (matter), which are the ultimate principles of reality. It also explains the evolution of the elements, senses, mind and intellect from prakriti, and the liberation of purusha from the bondage of prakriti .
 - Yoga: Founded by Patanjali in the 2nd century BCE, this system is closely related to Samkhya and is mainly concerned with the practical aspects of achieving the highest state of consciousness. It prescribes an eightfold path of discipline, consisting of yama (restraints), niyama (observances), asana (postures), pranayama (breath control), pratyahara (withdrawal of senses), dharana (concentration), dhyana

- (meditation) and samadhi (absorption) .
- Purva Mimamsa: Founded by Jaimini in the 3rd century BCE, this system is primarily focused on the interpretation and application of the Vedas, the earliest sacred literature of Hinduism. It advocates the performance of rituals and duties as the means to attain happiness and liberation. It also develops a sophisticated theory of language, meaning and exegesis .
 - Uttara Mimamsa or Vedanta: Founded by Badarayana in the 2nd century BCE, this system is based on the Upanishads, which are the philosophical portions of the Vedas. It explores the nature of Brahman, the supreme reality, and its relation to the individual self and the world. It also discusses various topics such as the nature of the self, the origin and end of the world, the nature of knowledge and liberation, and the role of ethics and action .

Shankaracharya and Advaita Vedanta

- Shankaracharya, also known as Adi Shankara, was an Indian philosopher and theologian who expounded the doctrine of Advaita Vedanta, one of the six orthodox schools of Hindu philosophy .
- Advaita Vedanta is a non-dualistic system of thought that holds that the ultimate reality is Brahman, the absolute and impersonal principle of existence, and that the individual self (atman) is identical with Brahman .
- Shankaracharya was born in the 8th century CE in a Brahmin family in Kerala. He renounced the worldly pleasures at a very young age and became a wandering ascetic. He traveled across India, engaging in debates with scholars of various schools of thought and establishing his authority as a master of Vedanta .
- Shankaracharya wrote commentaries on the Upanishads, the Brahma Sutras, and the Bhagavad Gita, the three foundational texts of Vedanta. He also composed original works, such as the Vivekachudamani, the Upadesasahasri, and the Crest-Jewel of Discrimination, which explain the core concepts of Advaita Vedanta in a clear and concise manner .
- Shankaracharya established four mathas, or monastic centers, in the four corners of India: Sringeri in the south, Dwarka in the west, Puri in the east, and Badrinath in the north. He appointed four of his disciples as the heads of these mathas, and entrusted them with the task of preserving and propagating his teachings .
- Shankaracharya is regarded as one of the most influential and revered figures in the history of Indian philosophy and religion. He is credited with reviving the Vedantic tradition, reconciling the various sects and schools of Hinduism, and defending Hinduism against the challenges of Buddhism and other rival doctrines .
- The cultural influence of Shankara and Advaita Vedanta started only centuries later, in the Vijayanagara Empire in the 14th century, when Sringeri

matha started to receive patronage from the kings of the Vijayanagara Empire and became a powerful institution. Advaita Vedanta also influenced the Bhakti movement, the Sikh religion, and the modern Hindu reform movements .

Various Philosophical Doctrines in India

- Indian philosophy refers to the systems of thought and reflection that were developed by the civilizations of the Indian subcontinent.
- Indian philosophy is characterized by its diversity, continuity, synthesis, and spiritual orientation .
- Indian philosophy accepts the authority of ancient philosophers and innovations are represented as extensions of older systems of thought.
- Indian philosophy shares many concepts such as dharma, karma, samsara, dukkha, renunciation, meditation, with almost all of them focusing on the ultimate goal of liberation of the individual from dukkha and samsara through diverse range of spiritual practices (moksha, nirvana) .
- Indian philosophy can be broadly classified into two categories: orthodox (astika) and unorthodox (nastika) .
- Orthodox schools accept the authority of the Vedas, the ancient scriptures of Hinduism, while unorthodox schools reject or question the Vedas .
- The six orthodox schools of Indian philosophy are: Sāṃkhya, Yoga, Nyāya, Vaisheshika, Purva-Mimamsa, and Vedanta .
- Sāṃkhya is a philosophical tradition which regards the universe as consisting of two independent realities: puruṣa (the self or soul) and prakṛti (the material nature).
- Yoga is a school similar to Sāṃkhya which accepts a personal god and focuses on yogic practices for attaining liberation.
- Nyāya is a school of logic and epistemology which analyzes the sources and validity of knowledge and inference.
- Vaisheshika is a school of atomism and naturalism which postulates that the universe is composed of six categories of substances: substance, quality, action, generality, particularity, and inherence.
- Purva-Mimamsa is a school of exegesis and ritualism which interprets the Vedas and prescribes the performance of sacrifices and duties for attaining heaven.
- Vedanta is a school of metaphysics and theology which expounds the Upanishads, the philosophical portions of the Vedas, and develops various systems of monism, dualism, and qualified monism.
- The three unorthodox schools of Indian philosophy are: Buddhism, Jainism, and Cārvāka .
- Buddhism is a religion and philosophy founded by Siddhartha Gautama (the Buddha) which teaches the Four Noble Truths and the Eightfold Path for overcoming dukkha and attaining nirvana.
- Jainism is a religion and philosophy founded by Mahavira (the Jina) which teaches the principles of non-violence, non-absolutism, and non-

possessiveness for achieving liberation from the cycle of rebirth.

- Cārvāka is a school of materialism and skepticism which denies the existence of anything beyond the four elements (earth, water, fire, and air) and rejects the notions of soul, karma, and liberation.

Heterodox Sects in India

- Heterodox sects are those that do not accept the authority of the Vedas or the brahmanical tradition as the source of religious and philosophical knowledge.
- Heterodox sects emerged in the 6th century BCE as a reaction to the ritualistic and hierarchical nature of the Vedic religion, which was dominated by the brahmins.
- Heterodox sects were part of the Sramana movement, which advocated asceticism, renunciation, and liberation from the cycle of rebirth.
- Heterodox sects included Jainism, Buddhism, Ajivika, Charvaka, and others.
- Heterodox sects differed from each other in their views on the nature of reality, the existence of the soul, the role of karma, the possibility of liberation, and the ethical conduct of life.
- Heterodox sects had their own founders, scriptures, doctrines, practices, and followers. Some of them developed into major religions, while others declined or disappeared over time.
- Heterodox sects contributed to the diversity and richness of Indian culture and philosophy. They also challenged and influenced the orthodox traditions, leading to reforms and innovations.

Bhakti Movement in India

- The Bhakti movement was a significant religious movement in medieval Hinduism that sought to bring religious reforms to all strata of society by adopting the method of devotion to achieve salvation.
- The movement preached against the caste system, ritualism, idolatry, and social inequalities, and emphasized the importance of a personal and direct relationship with God .
- The movement originated in South India in the 7th-8th centuries CE with the Alvars (Vaishnavite saints) and the Nayanars (Shaivite saints), who composed devotional hymns in Tamil and visited various sacred shrines .
- The movement spread to North India in the 12th-13th centuries CE with the emergence of various poet-saints, such as Ramananda, Kabir, Nanak,

Tulsidas, Surdas, Mirabai, and Chaitanya, who propagated their teachings in the regional languages, such as Hindi, Punjabi, Bengali, and Marathi .

- The movement also influenced the development of Sikhism, a monotheistic religion founded by Guru Nanak in the 15th century CE, which incorporated elements of both Hinduism and Islam .
- The impact of the Bhakti movement on Indian society was profound and lasting. It fostered a sense of unity and harmony among the people, regardless of their caste, gender, or sect. It also enriched the literary and cultural heritage of India, as the bhakti poets and singers created a vast corpus of works that expressed their love and devotion to God in various forms and genres .

Sufi movement in India

- Sufism is a mystical branch of Islam that emphasizes the direct experience of God through love, devotion, and ethical conduct.
- Sufism originated in the Middle East and Central Asia in the early centuries of Islam, and spread to India through the travels and teachings of various Sufi saints or masters.
- Sufism in India was influenced by the local religious and cultural traditions, such as Hinduism, Buddhism, and Jainism, and developed a syncretic and pluralistic outlook.
- Sufism in India was also a socio-religious movement that challenged the orthodoxy and rigidity of the Islamic establishment, and offered a more inclusive and tolerant path to salvation.
- Sufism in India was organized into various orders or silsilas, each with its own founder, lineage, doctrine, and practices. Some of the prominent silsilas in India were:
 - Chishtiyya: Founded by Khwaja Moinuddin Chishti in Ajmer, Rajasthan, in the 12th century. It was the most popular and influential silsila in India, and emphasized love, service, and music as the means of reaching God. Some of the famous Chishti saints were Khwaja Qutbuddin Bakhtiyar Kaki, Khwaja Fariduddin Ganjshakar, Khwaja Nizamuddin Auliya, and Amir Khusrau.
 - Suhrawardiyya: Founded by Sheikh Shihabuddin Suhrawardi in Baghdad, Iraq, in the 12th century. It was a more orthodox and ascetic silsila, and focused on the practice of meditation and contemplation. Some of the notable Suhrawardi saints in India were Sheikh Bahauddin Zakariya, Sheikh Ruknuddin Abul Fath, and Sheikh Baha al-Din Haydar.
 - Qadiriyya: Founded by Sheikh Abdul Qadir Jilani in Baghdad, Iraq, in the 12th century. It was a more charismatic and miraculous silsila, and stressed on the power and grace of God. Some of the eminent Qadiri saints in India were Sheikh Hamiduddin Nagauri, Sheikh Nizamuddin Auliya, and Sheikh Syed Muhammad Gesu Daraz.
 - Naqshbandiyya: Founded by Sheikh Baha al-Din Naqshband in

Bukhara, Uzbekistan, in the 14th century. It was a more sober and silent silsila, and advocated the remembrance of God in the heart. Some of the prominent Naqshbandi saints in India were Sheikh Ahmad Sirhindi, Sheikh Mujaddid Alf Sani, and Sheikh Shah Waliullah.

- Sufism in India had a significant impact on the social, cultural, and political spheres of the subcontinent. It contributed to the spread of Islam, the development of regional languages and literature, the promotion of art and music, the synthesis of Hindu-Muslim cultures, the emergence of popular devotional movements, and the resistance against foreign invasions and oppressive rulers.

Socio-religious reform movement of 19th century in India

- Socio-religious reform movement was a wave of reforming activities that aimed to improve the social, religious and cultural conditions of the Indian society in the 19th century.
- The main causes of the movement were:
 - The spread of western education and liberal ideas that exposed the Indians to the values of rationalism, humanism, democracy and nationalism.
 - The contact with the British rule and culture that challenged the traditional authority of the Brahmins, the caste system and the religious orthodoxy.
 - The rise of a new middle class of educated and professional Indians who were influenced by the western thought and sought to reform the society from within.
 - The social evils and practices that oppressed the women, the lower castes and the minorities, such as sati, child marriage, purdah, untouchability, polygamy, etc.
 - The religious revivalism and communalism that threatened the unity and harmony of the Indian society and the national movement.
- The main types of the movement were:
 - The reformist movements that aimed to reform the existing religions by removing the superstitions, rituals, dogmas and social evils and by emphasizing the ethical and rational aspects of the faith. Examples are Brahmo Samaj, Prarthana Samaj, Aligarh Movement, etc.
 - The revivalist movements that aimed to revive the ancient and pure forms of the religions by rejecting the western influence and by asserting the superiority of the faith. Examples are Arya Samaj, Ramakrishna Mission, Deoband Movement, etc.
 - The radical movements that aimed to reject the existing religions and create new ones based on the principles of equality, liberty and fraternity. Examples are Young Bengal Movement, Satyashodhak Samaj, etc.
- The main features of the movement were:

- The movement was led by the educated and enlightened Indians who were influenced by both the western and the Indian sources of knowledge and inspiration.
- The movement was supported by the masses, especially the women, the lower castes and the minorities who were the victims of the social and religious oppression.
- The movement was opposed by the orthodox and conservative sections of the society who resisted any change in the status quo and who feared the loss of their privileges and power.
- The movement was influenced by the national movement and contributed to the growth of the Indian nationalism by creating a sense of common identity, awakening and solidarity among the Indians.

Modern religious practices in India

- India is a diverse and secular country, with no official religion and a constitution that guarantees freedom of religion to all citizens.
- The major religions practiced in India are Hinduism, Islam, Christianity, Sikhism, Buddhism and Jainism. Hinduism is the dominant religion, with about 80% of the population identifying as Hindu .
- Religion plays a significant role in the lives of most Indians, influencing their culture, politics, economy and social relations.
- Some of the common religious practices in India include:
 - Visiting houses of worship, such as temples, mosques, churches, gurdwaras and monasteries. According to a survey, 77% of Indians say they visit their place of worship at least once a month.
 - Giving to charitable causes, such as feeding the poor, donating to religious institutions, supporting social movements and helping the needy. According to the same survey, 87% of Indians say they gave money, food or other goods to the poor or a religious organization in the past year.
 - Celebrating festivals, such as Diwali, Holi, Eid, Christmas, Guru Nanak Jayanti and Buddha Purnima. These festivals are marked by rituals, prayers, feasts, fireworks, music and dance, and often involve people from different faiths and communities.
 - Performing rites of passage, such as birth, naming, initiation, marriage and death ceremonies. These ceremonies vary according to the religion, region, caste and family traditions of the individuals involved, and often involve elaborate rituals, customs and ceremonies.
 - Practicing meditation, yoga, chanting, fasting, pilgrimage and other forms of spiritual discipline. These practices are aimed at enhancing one's physical, mental and spiritual well-being, and are often influenced by Hindu, Buddhist and Jain traditions.

- India's religious groups also share several religious practices and beliefs, such as belief in karma, reincarnation, the sacredness of the cow, the veneration of saints and gurus, and the respect for elders and ancestors.
- India's religious diversity and tolerance are also reflected in its legal system, which recognizes personal laws based on religion for matters such as marriage, divorce, inheritance and adoption. However, there are also challenges and conflicts arising from religious differences, such as communal violence, discrimination, conversion and blasphemy.

Module 4-Science, Management and Indian Knowledge System

- This module covers the contributions of Indian culture and civilization to various fields of science, technology and management.
- It aims to highlight the achievements and innovations of ancient and medieval India in astronomy, chemistry, mathematics, physics, agriculture, medicine, metallurgy, geography, biology and other domains.
- It also explores the indigenous knowledge systems and practices that have been developed and preserved by various communities and traditions in India.
- Some of the topics covered in this module are:
 - Astronomy in India: The development of astronomical concepts, observations, instruments, calendars and almanacs by Indian astronomers such as Aryabhata, Varahamihira, Brahmagupta, Bhaskara, Lalla, Surya Siddhanta and others.
 - Chemistry in India: The origin and evolution of alchemy, metallurgy, dyeing, distillation, cosmetics, perfumery, medicine and other chemical arts in India by scholars such as Nagarjuna, Kanada, Charaka, Sushruta, Patanjali and others.
 - Mathematics in India: The invention and application of zero, decimal system, algebra, geometry, trigonometry, calculus, combinatorics, cryptography and other branches of mathematics in India by mathematicians such as Pingala, Baudhayana, Apastamba, Katyayana, Panini, Aryabhata, Brahmagupta, Bhaskara, Mahavira, Hemachandra and others.
 - Physics in India: The formulation and analysis of physical concepts, principles, laws, phenomena and experiments in India by physicists such as Kanada, Kapila, Gautama, Uddalaka, Yajnavalkya, Patanjali, Bharata, Bharadvaja and others.
 - Agriculture in India: The cultivation and improvement of crops, soil, irrigation, fertilizers, pest control, animal husbandry, horticulture, forestry and other aspects of agriculture in India by farmers, scientists, engineers and administrators such as Kashyapa, Varahamihira,

- Amarasimha, Somadeva, Kautilya and others.
- Medicine in India: The origin and development of Ayurveda, Siddha, Unani, Yoga, Naturopathy and other systems of medicine in India by physicians, surgeons, pharmacists, therapists and teachers such as Charaka, Sushruta, Vagbhata, Nagarjuna, Patanjali, Dhanvantari and others.
- Metallurgy in India: The production and use of metals, alloys, minerals, gems, ceramics, glass and other materials in India by metallurgists, craftsmen, artists and traders such as Nagarjuna, Dharmottara, Nityananda, Rasa Ratna Samuccaya and others.
- Geography in India: The description and mapping of the earth, oceans, mountains, rivers, islands, continents, regions, countries and cities in India by geographers, travelers, explorers and cartographers such as Varahamihira, Ptolemy, Alberuni, Ibn Battuta, Abul Fazl and others.
- Biology in India: The study and classification of plants, animals, humans, microorganisms and other forms of life in India by biologists, botanists, zoologists, anatomists, physiologists and ecologists such as Kashyapa, Charaka, Sushruta, Jivaka, Patanjali, Varahamihira and others.
- Harappan Technologies: The engineering and architectural marvels of the Indus Valley Civilization such as the urban planning, drainage system, water supply, sanitation, public baths, granaries, docks, seals, weights, measures and scripts.
- Water Management in India: The construction and maintenance of wells, tanks, canals, dams, reservoirs, aqueducts and other water structures in India by engineers, architects, rulers and communities such as Vishwakarma, Bhoja, Chandragupta Maurya, Ashoka, Chandragupta Vikramaditya, Raja Bhoj, Krishnadevaraya and others.
- Textile Technology in India: The production and export of cotton, silk, wool, linen, jute and other fabrics in India by weavers, dyers, printers, embroiderers and merchants such as Kalidasa, Amarasimha, Varahamihira, Kautilya, Marco Polo, Ibn Battuta and others.
- Writing Technology in India: The invention and development

Astronomy in India and Ancient India

- Astronomy is the study of celestial objects and phenomena in the sky.
- Astronomy has a long history in India, dating back to the prehistoric times and the Indus Valley civilization.
- Astronomy was developed as a branch of Vedanga, or one of the auxiliary disciplines associated with the study of the Vedas, the ancient scriptures of Hinduism.
- Astronomy in ancient India was based on naked-eye observation, occasionally supported by simple instruments such as gnomons, water clocks, and armillary spheres.

- Astronomy in ancient India can be divided into two major classes: the Siddhantic and the Samhita.
 - The Siddhantic astronomy was the theoretical and mathematical branch, which dealt with the calculation of planetary positions, eclipses, and other astronomical phenomena.
 - The Samhita astronomy was the practical and observational branch, which dealt with the interpretation of celestial events and their relation to human affairs, such as astrology, auspicious times, and rituals.
- Some of the prominent astronomers of ancient India were:
 - Aryabhata (476-550 CE), who wrote the Aryabhatiya, a treatise on astronomy and mathematics, which introduced the concepts of the rotation of the Earth, the heliocentric model, the value of pi, and the use of zero.
 - Varahamihira (505-587 CE), who wrote the Panchasiddhantika, a summary of five earlier astronomical works, and the Brihat Samhita, an encyclopedia of natural and human sciences, which included chapters on astronomy, astrology, geography, and meteorology.
 - Brahmagupta (598-665 CE), who wrote the Brahmasphutasiddhanta, a revised version of the Aryabhatiya, which introduced the rules of arithmetic with zero and negative numbers, and the use of algebra and trigonometry in astronomy.
 - Bhaskara II (1114-1185 CE), who wrote the Siddhanta Shiromani, a comprehensive work on astronomy and mathematics, which included the concepts of the elliptical orbits of planets, the law of gravity, and the calculation of the Earth's circumference.

Chemistry in India and Ancient India

- Chemistry in ancient India was called **Rasayana** in Sanskrit, which means **extract** or **essence** of substances .
- Chemistry in ancient India was not confined to theoretical knowledge, but found practical applications in various fields such as metallurgy, medicine, alchemy, cosmetics, perfumery, dyeing, agriculture, and warfare .
- Some of the achievements of chemistry in ancient India are:
 - The discovery and extraction of metals such as iron, copper, zinc, tin, lead, silver, and gold from ores and alloys .
 - The development of steel-making techniques, such as the **wootz steel** or **Damascus steel**, which was renowned for its hardness and quality .
 - The invention of various chemical devices and apparatus, such as crucibles, furnaces, retorts, alembics, filters, condensers, and distillation units, for conducting chemical experiments and processes .
 - The production of various chemical substances, such as acids, alkalis, salts, minerals, metals, mercury, sulfur, arsenic, and antimony, and their compounds and mixtures .
 - The synthesis of various organic and inorganic dyes, such as indigo,

- turmeric, lac, madder, saffron, vermilion, and cinnabar, and their use for coloring textiles, paints, and cosmetics .
 - The preparation of various perfumes, fragrances, and aromatic oils, such as sandalwood, jasmine, rose, musk, camphor, and agarwood, and their use for personal hygiene, religious rituals, and medicinal purposes .
 - The formulation of various medicines, drugs, and remedies, based on the principles of **Ayurveda**, which is the ancient system of medicine and healing in India, and the use of various herbs, minerals, metals, and animal products for curing diseases and enhancing health .
 - The practice of various alchemical processes, such as the transmutation of metals, the elixir of life, and the philosopher’s stone, which aimed at achieving immortality, spiritual enlightenment, and material wealth .
- Some of the prominent chemists in ancient India are:
 - **Nagarjuna** (c. 2nd century CE), who is considered the father of Indian chemistry and alchemy, and who wrote the **Rasaratnakara**, a treatise on various aspects of chemistry, such as metallurgy, alchemy, medicine, and cosmetics .
 - **Kanada** (c. 6th century BCE), who is regarded as the founder of the **Vaisheshika** school of philosophy, and who proposed the atomic theory of matter, which states that all substances are composed of indivisible and indestructible atoms .
 - **Charaka** (c. 2nd century BCE), who is regarded as the father of Indian medicine and the author of the **Charaka Samhita**, a compendium of medical knowledge, which includes chapters on pharmacology, pharmacy, and therapeutics .
 - **Sushruta** (c. 6th century BCE), who is regarded as the father of Indian surgery and the author of the **Sushruta Samhita**, a treatise on surgery, which describes various surgical instruments, procedures, and techniques, such as anesthesia, cauterization, and plastic surgery .
 - **Varahamihira** (c. 6th century CE)

Mathematics in India and Ancient India

- Mathematics or ‘Ganita’ was the ‘Science of Calculations’ in ancient India. It was primarily studied in the context of numerical computation and geometric measurement.
- Most of the Indian mathematical work can be found as a part of ‘Jyotisha’ or Astronomy, which was one of the six auxiliary disciplines of the Vedas.
- The history of Indian mathematics dates back to the Indus valley civilization (around 1500 B.C.), which had a sophisticated system of weights and measures, a decimal system of numeration, and a knowledge of basic geometry .
- The Vedic period (around 1500 B.C. to 500 B.C.) saw the development of

the Sulba Sutras, which were appendices to the Vedas that dealt with the construction of altars and fire sacrifices. The Sulba Sutras contained rules for finding the areas and perimeters of various geometric shapes, as well as methods for constructing squares, rectangles, and circles from given measurements .

- The classical period of Indian mathematics (400 C.E. to 1200 C.E.) witnessed the emergence of some of the greatest Indian mathematicians, such as Aryabhata, Brahmagupta, Bhaskara II, and Varahamihira. They made significant contributions to the fields of algebra, arithmetic, trigonometry, and negative numbers, among others .
- Some of the notable achievements of Indian mathematics in this period include:
 - The concept of zero as both a symbol and a number, which was first mentioned by Brahmagupta in his treatise Brahmasphutasiddhanta (628 C.E.) .
 - The use of the decimal place-value system and the Hindu-Arabic numerals, which were popularized by Aryabhata in his work Aryabhatiya (499 C.E.) .
 - The discovery of the formula for the area of a triangle, the solution of quadratic equations, and the Pythagorean theorem, which were given by Aryabhata in his Aryabhatiya.
 - The invention of the sine, cosine, and inverse sine functions, and the calculation of the value of pi to four decimal places, which were done by Aryabhata in his work Arya-siddhanta.
 - The introduction of negative numbers and the rules for their operations, which were stated by Brahmagupta in his Brahmasphutasiddhanta.
 - The development of the concept of cyclic quadrilaterals and the formula for their area, which were given by Brahmagupta in his Khadakhadyaka (665 C.E.).
 - The formulation of the law of sines for spherical triangles, and the calculation of the circumference of the earth, which were done by Bhaskara I in his commentary on the Aryabhatiya (629 C.E.).
 - The discovery of the formula for the volume of a frustum of a pyramid, and the solution of indeterminate equations of the form $ax + by = c$, which were given by Bhaskara II in his works Lilavati (1150 C.E.) and Bijaganita (1150 C.E.).
 - The compilation of the Pancha-siddhantika (505 C.E.), which was a summary of five earlier astronomical treatises, and the Brihat-samhita (550 C.E.), which was a comprehensive work on astrology, geography, architecture, and meteorology, which were done by Varahamihira.
- The medieval period of Indian mathematics (1200 C.E. to 1800 C.E.) saw the decline of the original Indian mathematical tradition, due to the political and social upheavals caused by the Islamic invasions and the British colonization. However, some notable mathematicians of this period include

Mahavira, Bhaskara III, Narayana Pandita, Madhava, and Nilakantha .

- Some of the notable achievements of Indian mathematics in this period include:
 - The expansion of the concept of zero to include fractions and irrational numbers, and the introduction of the terms shunya (zero) and ananta (infinity), which were done by Mahavira in his work Ganita-sara-sangraha (850 C

Physics in India and Ancient India

- Physics is the branch of science that deals with the nature and properties of matter and energy, and the interactions between them.
- Physics in India has a long and rich history, dating back to the ancient times, when Indian philosophers and sages developed various systems of thought and knowledge that explored the physical world and its phenomena.
- Some of the main achievements and contributions of physics in India and ancient India are:
 - The concept of **atomism**, which is the idea that all matter is composed of indivisible and indestructible units called atoms. This concept was first proposed by **Maharishi Kanada** around 200 BCE, and later elaborated by **Dharmakirti** and **Dignaga** in the 1st millennium CE .
 - The theory of **elements**, which is the idea that there are five basic elements that constitute the universe: earth, water, fire, air, and ether. This theory was developed by various schools of Indian philosophy, such as **Nyaya**, **Vaisheshika**, **Samkhya**, and **Yoga** .
 - The understanding of **energy and mass equivalence**, which is the idea that energy and mass are interchangeable and can be converted from one form to another. This idea was expressed by **Sage Bharadwaja** in his treatise **Yantra Sarvasva**, where he stated that “light and heat are composed of the same essence as the material body” and that “the material body and the energy are convertible”.
 - The discovery of **wave-particle duality**, which is the idea that light and other forms of radiation can exhibit both wave-like and particle-like behavior. This idea was suggested by **Sage Kanada** in his **Vaisheshika Sutras**, where he stated that “light is composed of innumerable particles” and that “the particles of light have the nature of a wave”.
 - The development of **astronomy and mathematics**, which are the disciplines that study the celestial bodies and their motions, and the abstract concepts and symbols that represent numbers and quantities. Indian astronomers and mathematicians made significant contributions to these fields, such as **Aryabhata**, **Brahmagupta**,

Bhaskara, Varahamihira, Madhava, and many others . They invented the decimal system, the concept of zero, the trigonometric functions, and the calculus. They also calculated the circumference of the earth, the diameter of the moon, the distance of the sun, the eclipses, the planetary orbits, and the gravitational force.

Agriculture in India and Ancient India

Agriculture is one of the oldest and most important activities of human civilization. India has a rich and diverse agricultural history, dating back to the Neolithic period. Here are some points to learn about agriculture in India and ancient India:

- The earliest evidence of agriculture in India comes from the site of Mehrgarh in present-day Pakistan, where wheat, barley, peas, lentils, and cattle were domesticated by 9000 BCE.
- The Indus Valley Civilization (2500-1900 BCE) was one of the first urban civilizations in the world, and it relied heavily on agriculture for its economy and trade. The Indus people cultivated wheat, barley, rice, millets, sesame, mustard, cotton, and fruits, and also raised animals such as cattle, sheep, goats, pigs, and elephants.
- The Vedic period (1500-500 BCE) saw the expansion of agriculture in northern India, especially along the Ganges river valley. The Vedic people practiced rain-fed agriculture, and also used irrigation systems such as wells, canals, and tanks. They grew crops such as rice, barley, millets, pulses, oilseeds, sugarcane, and cotton, and also performed rituals and sacrifices related to agriculture.
- The Mauryan Empire (321-185 BCE) was the first pan-Indian empire, and it promoted agriculture as a source of revenue and welfare. The Mauryan rulers established a system of land measurement, taxation, and administration, and also encouraged the development of irrigation, forestry, and animal husbandry. They also introduced new crops such as grapes, dates, and citrus fruits from West Asia.
- The Gupta Empire (320-550 CE) is considered the golden age of ancient India, and it witnessed a flourishing of agriculture, trade, and culture. The Gupta rulers supported the construction of dams, reservoirs, and canals, and also promoted the use of iron tools and plows. They cultivated crops such as rice, wheat, millets, pulses, oilseeds, sugarcane, cotton, and spices, and also exported them to other regions and countries.
- The medieval period (600-1500 CE) saw the emergence of various regional kingdoms and dynasties in India, and also the arrival of foreign invaders and traders. The medieval rulers continued to patronize agriculture, and also introduced new crops and techniques from other parts of the world. For example, the Arabs brought rice, sugarcane, and cotton from India to Europe and Africa, and also introduced crops such as sorghum,

maize, and coffee from Africa to India. The Turks and Mongols brought horses, camels, and fruits from Central Asia to India, and also introduced crops such as wheat, barley, and grapes from India to Central Asia. The Mughals (1526-1857) consolidated the agricultural system of India, and also introduced crops such as potatoes, tomatoes, chilies, and tobacco from the Americas to India .

- The modern period (1500-present) saw the colonization of India by the British, and the subsequent independence and development of India as a nation. The British exploited the agricultural resources of India, and also imposed policies and laws that adversely affected the farmers and the environment. The British also introduced crops such as tea, coffee, rubber, and indigo from other parts of the world to India, and also exported them to other countries. The Indian independence movement and the Green Revolution (1960s-1970s) aimed to restore the self-reliance and productivity of Indian agriculture, and also to improve the living standards and food security of the people. The Indian government and the farmers have adopted various policies and practices to enhance the agricultural sector, such as land reforms, irrigation, fertilizers, pesticides, seeds, mechanization, biotechnology, and organic farming. India is currently one of the largest producers and consumers of agricultural products in the world, and also faces challenges such as climate change, population growth, poverty, and malnutrition.

Medicine in India and Ancient India

- Medicine in India has a long and rich history, dating back to the Vedic period (c. 1500-500 BCE) .
- The most ancient and influential system of Indian medicine is Ayurveda, which means “the science of life” . Ayurveda is based on the concept of balance among the five elements (earth, water, fire, air, and ether), the three doshas (vata, pitta, and kapha), and the seven dhatus (tissues) in the body .
- Ayurveda also emphasizes the importance of diet, lifestyle, hygiene, mental health, and spiritual well-being for preventing and curing diseases . Ayurveda uses various methods of diagnosis, such as pulse, urine, stool, tongue, and eye examination, and prescribes various treatments, such as herbal medicines, massage, yoga, meditation, and surgery .
- Some of the famous ancient Indian physicians and surgeons were Charaka, Sushruta, Vagbhata, Nagarjuna, and Dhanvantari . They wrote authoritative texts on Ayurveda, such as the Charaka Samhita, the Sushruta Samhita, the Ashtanga Hridaya, and the Sushruta Nidana .
- Charaka is considered the father of Indian medicine and the first to describe the principles of Ayurveda in a systematic way . He also classified diseases into eight categories and described the causes, symptoms, diagnosis, prognosis, and treatment of various disorders .
- Sushruta is considered the father of Indian surgery and the first to perform

various surgical procedures, such as rhinoplasty, lithotomy, cataract, and caesarean section . He also described the anatomy of the human body, the instruments and techniques of surgery, the types of wounds and fractures, and the principles of plastic surgery .

- Vagbhata was a disciple of Charaka and Sushruta and the author of the Ashtanga Hridaya, which is a concise and comprehensive summary of Ayurveda . He also introduced the concept of trividha roga (three types of diseases), which are caused by the imbalance of the three doshas, the three gunas (qualities of the mind), and the three malas (wastes of the body) .
- Nagarjuna was a renowned alchemist and metallurgist who discovered various metals and minerals, such as mercury, gold, silver, copper, iron, zinc, and lead, and their medicinal properties . He also developed various methods of purification, extraction, and preparation of metals and minerals for therapeutic use .
- Dhanvantari is considered the patron deity of Ayurveda and the originator of the medical tradition in India . He is said to have emerged from the ocean of milk with a pot of nectar (amrita) in his hand, which he distributed among the gods and humans for their health and longevity .
- Medicine in India has evolved over time and has been influenced by various other systems of medicine, such as Unani, Siddha, Tibetan, and Western medicine . However, Ayurveda remains the most popular and widely practiced system of medicine in India, especially in rural areas .
- Medicine in India is also regulated by various laws and institutions, such as the Indian Medical Council Act, the Indian Medicine Central Council Act, the National Medical Commission, and the Ministry of AYUSH (Ayurveda, Yoga and Naturopathy, Unani, Siddha, and Homeopathy) . These bodies aim to ensure the quality, safety, and efficacy of medical education, research, and practice in India .

Metallurgy in India and Ancient India

Metallurgy is the science and art of extracting and processing metals from ores and other sources. Metallurgy in India and ancient India has a long and rich history, dating back to the 3rd millennium BCE. Some of the main points about metallurgy in India and ancient India are:

- Copper was one of the first metals to be used by humans in India, as evidenced by copper artefacts from the Chalcolithic period (c. 2500-1500 BCE) found in various sites such as Khetri in Rajasthan and Mitathal in Haryana .
- The Rigveda, one of the oldest texts in the world, mentions the term Ayas (), which means metal, and refers to various metals such as gold, silver, copper, iron and tin .
- Iron metallurgy in India began around 1800 BCE, and reached its peak in the early centuries CE, when India became a major exporter of iron and

steel to various regions such as West Asia, Europe and China . Indian iron and steel were known for their high quality, strength and resistance to corrosion.

- Zinc metallurgy in India was another remarkable achievement, as India was the first civilization to produce zinc on an industrial scale by using a sophisticated distillation technique that involved heating zinc ore in a closed vessel and condensing the vapour in a separate chamber . This technique was developed around 1200 CE at Zawar in Rajasthan, and was later adopted by China and Europe.
- Other metals that were known and used in India and ancient India include lead, tin, mercury, silver, gold, brass, bronze and alloys such as panchaloha (five metals) and ashtadhatu (eight metals) . Indian metallurgists also developed various methods of casting, forging, welding, tempering, quenching, polishing and ornamenting metals .

Geography in India and Ancient India

- India is a large country in South Asia, with a total area of 3.28 million square kilometers. It is the seventh-largest country in the world by area and the second-most populous country with over 1.3 billion people.
- India has a diverse geography, with various landforms such as mountains, plains, plateaus, deserts, coasts, and islands. It is bounded by the Indian Ocean on the south, the Arabian Sea on the southwest, and the Bay of Bengal on the southeast. It shares land borders with Pakistan, China, Nepal, Bhutan, Bangladesh, and Myanmar.
- India has a rich and ancient history, dating back to the Indus Valley Civilization (2500-1900 BCE), one of the earliest urban civilizations in the world. The civilization was centered around the Indus River and its tributaries, and extended to parts of present-day Pakistan, Afghanistan, and Iran. The civilization is known for its urban planning, sanitation, trade, writing, and art.
- India was also home to another ancient civilization, the Vedic Civilization (1500-500 BCE), which was based on the Gangetic Plain and was influenced by the Indo-Aryan migration from Central Asia. The Vedic Civilization is the source of the Hindu religion, the Vedas (the oldest scriptures of Hinduism), and the Sanskrit language. The Vedic Civilization also developed the concepts of varna (social classes), ashrama (stages of life), and dharma (duty).
- India's geography has shaped its culture, economy, and politics throughout history. The mountains in the north and northeast have provided natural barriers against invaders, as well as sources of water, minerals, and biodiversity. The plains in the north and central India have been the cradles of civilization, agriculture, and empires, as well as the sites of many battles and invasions. The plateaus in the south and central India have been the centers of trade, commerce, and innovation, as well as the bastions of regional kingdoms and cultures. The deserts in the west and

northwest have been the routes of trade, migration, and cultural exchange, as well as the challenges of drought and famine. The coasts and islands have been the gateways of maritime trade, exploration, and colonization, as well as the targets of foreign invasions and natural disasters.

Biology in India and Ancient India

- Biology is the study of living organisms and their interactions with the environment.
- India has a rich and diverse biological heritage, with many endemic species of plants and animals.
- India also has a long and illustrious history of biological knowledge and research, dating back to ancient times.
- Some of the main aspects of biology in India and ancient India are:
 - **Vedic biology:** The Vedas are the oldest scriptures of Hinduism, composed between 1500 BCE and 600 BCE. They contain references to various plants and animals, as well as concepts of life, death, rebirth, and karma. The Vedas also mention some methods of classification, such as the five elements (earth, water, fire, air, and ether), the three qualities (sattva, rajas, and tamas), and the four castes (brahmins, kshatriyas, vaishyas, and shudras).
 - **Ayurveda:** Ayurveda is the traditional system of medicine in India, based on the balance of the five elements and the three doshas (vata, pitta, and kapha). Ayurveda has a holistic approach to health and disease, and uses various herbs, minerals, animal products, and surgical techniques to treat various ailments. Ayurveda also has a rich knowledge of anatomy, physiology, pharmacology, and pathology, as well as the concept of prana (vital energy) and the seven dhatus (tissues).
 - **Charaka Samhita and Sushruta Samhita:** These are two of the most important texts of Ayurveda, written between the 6th and 2nd centuries BCE. The Charaka Samhita deals mainly with internal medicine, while the Sushruta Samhita deals mainly with surgery. Both texts describe various diseases, symptoms, diagnoses, treatments, and preventive measures, as well as the anatomy and physiology of the human body. The Sushruta Samhita also describes various surgical instruments, procedures, and techniques, such as rhinoplasty, lithotomy, cataract surgery, and caesarean section.
 - **Jainism and Buddhism:** Jainism and Buddhism are two of the major religions that originated in India, around the 6th century BCE. Both religions emphasize the principle of ahimsa (non-violence) and the respect for all living beings. Jainism and Buddhism also have a detailed knowledge of the life cycle, the classification of living beings,

the concept of karma, and the theory of evolution. Jainism and Buddhism also influenced the development of logic, mathematics, and astronomy in India.

- **Taxonomy and zoology:** India has a rich tradition of taxonomy and zoology, dating back to ancient times. Some of the earliest taxonomists and zoologists in India were Kautilya (4th century BCE), Varahamihira (6th century CE), and Nalanda (7th-12th centuries CE). They classified various plants and animals based on their morphology, habitat, behavior, and utility. They also described various aspects of animal anatomy, physiology, ecology, and ethology. Some of the animals that were studied and named by Indian taxonomists and zoologists include the elephant, the rhinoceros, the lion, the tiger, the peacock, the cobra, and the mongoose.
- **Botany and agriculture:** India has a rich tradition of botany and agriculture, dating back to ancient times. Some of the earliest botanists and agriculturists in India were Parashara (6th century BCE), Varahamihira (6th century CE), and Surapala (10th century CE). They classified various plants based on their morphology, habitat, medicinal properties, and economic value. They also described various aspects of plant anatomy, physiology, genetics, and pathology. Some of the plants that were studied and cultivated by Indian botanists and agriculturists include wheat, barley, rice, millet, cotton, sugarcane, indigo, pepper, ginger, and turmeric.

Harappan Technologies in India and Ancient India

- The Harappan civilization, also known as the Indus Valley civilization, was one of the earliest urban cultures of the Indian subcontinent, dating from 3300 to 1300 BCE .
- The Harappan civilization is referred to as a Bronze Age civilization, as it developed metallurgy with copper, bronze, lead, and tin . It also produced tools and weapons such as axes, chisels, arrowheads, spearheads, knives, saws, razors, and fish-hooks.
- The Harappan civilization also invented standardized weights and measures, which facilitated trade and commerce across the region. It also created seals with carved symbols and images, which were used for identification, authentication, and communication.
- The Harappan civilization also demonstrated advanced hydraulic engineering, as it built sophisticated systems for water conservation, harvesting, and storage. It also constructed urban planning, drainage, sanitation, and public baths .
- The Harappan civilization also developed a script, which remains undeciphered, and a rich artistic and cultural heritage, which included pottery, jewelry, terracotta figurines, and stone sculptures .

Water Management in Ancient India and India

- Water management is the planning, development, distribution, and use of water resources for various purposes, such as irrigation, drinking, sanitation, power generation, and ecology.
- Water management in ancient India was influenced by the geographical, climatic, cultural, and religious factors of the region.
- Some of the main features of water management in ancient India were:
 - The use of natural and artificial water bodies, such as rivers, lakes, ponds, wells, tanks, canals, and reservoirs, for storing and supplying water.
 - The construction of sophisticated hydraulic structures, such as dams, barrages, aqueducts, sluices, and water wheels, for controlling and diverting water flow.
 - The development of water treatment methods, such as filtering, boiling, and adding herbs, for purifying and enhancing the quality of water.
 - The adoption of water conservation practices, such as rainwater harvesting, watershed management, and water recycling, for reducing water wastage and increasing water availability.
 - The integration of water management with social, economic, and religious aspects of life, such as agriculture, trade, urban planning, and rituals.
- Some of the examples of water management in ancient India are:
 - The Harappan civilization (3000-1500 BCE), which had a well-developed urban water supply and drainage system, with public and private wells, baths, and latrines, and a network of underground and surface drains .
 - The Vedic period (1500-500 BCE), which had a rich hydrological knowledge, based on the observation and analysis of the hydrologic cycle, the monsoon, the river systems, and the groundwater.
 - The Mauryan empire (321-185 BCE), which had a centralized water administration, with a royal department of water resources, and a system of water taxation and regulation.
 - The Gupta period (320-550 CE), which had a flourishing water culture, with the construction of large-scale irrigation works, such as dams, canals, and reservoirs, and the promotion of water-related arts, sciences, and literature.
 - The medieval period (600-1700 CE), which had a diverse and innovative water management, with the introduction of new technologies, such as stepwells, water clocks, and water mills, and the emergence of local and community-based water institutions, such as village tanks, temple tanks, and waqf .

- The colonial and post-colonial period (1700-present), which had a mixed and complex water management, with the influence of British and modern policies, laws, and projects, and the challenges of population growth, urbanization, industrialization, and climate change.
- Water management in India today is facing several issues, such as water scarcity, water pollution, water conflicts, and water governance, which require urgent and sustainable solutions.

Textile Technology in India and Ancient India

- Textile technology is the art and science of producing fabrics from natural or synthetic materials, such as cotton, silk, wool, or polyester.
- India has a long and rich history of textile production and use, dating back to prehistoric times. India was one of the first countries to cultivate cotton and weave it into cloth, as well as to dye and print fabrics with various colors and patterns.
- Some of the sources of information on textile technology in ancient India are:
 - Literary sources, such as Vedas, Ramayana, Mahabharata, Arthashastra, and Buddhist and Jain texts, which mention various types of fabrics, garments, and techniques used by different classes and regions of society.
 - Archaeological sources, such as excavations, inscriptions, coins, sculptures, paintings, and terracotta figurines, which provide evidence of the tools, machines, and processes involved in textile production and trade.
 - Foreign accounts, such as those of Greek, Roman, Chinese, Arab, and Persian travelers, traders, and historians, who praised the quality, variety, and beauty of Indian textiles and recorded their export to various parts of the world.
- Some of the features of textile technology in ancient India are:
 - The use of various natural fibers, such as cotton, silk, wool, linen, jute, and hemp, as well as animal and plant products, such as leather, fur, feathers, shells, pearls, and flowers, to create different types of fabrics and embellishments.
 - The development of various techniques, such as spinning, weaving, knitting, felting, embroidery, applique, quilting, tie-dyeing, block-printing, and painting, to produce fabrics with different textures, patterns, and designs.
 - The innovation of various tools and machines, such as spindles, looms, needles, scissors, hooks, combs, stamps, brushes, and dye vats, to facilitate and enhance the textile production and use.
 - The diversity of textile products, such as clothing, accessories, household items, religious items, and artistic items, that reflected the culture, geography, climate, and preferences of different regions and

communities of India.

- The importance of textile trade, both domestic and international, that contributed to the economy, diplomacy, and cultural exchange of India with other countries and regions, such as Mesopotamia, Egypt, Greece, Rome, China, Southeast Asia, Central Asia, and the Middle East.

Writing Technology in India and Ancient India

- Writing technology refers to the tools and methods used to create, preserve, and transmit written texts.
- India has a rich and diverse history of writing technology, spanning from the ancient Indus Valley civilization to the modern digital era.
- Some of the main aspects of writing technology in India and ancient India are:
 - Writing systems: India has developed and used various writing systems, such as the syllabic Kharosthi and semialphabetic Brahmi scripts of ancient India, the Devanagari script of Sanskrit and modern Hindi, the Perso-Arabic script of Urdu, and the many regional scripts derived from Brahmi, such as Bengali, Gujarati, Tamil, Telugu, etc.
 - Writing materials: India has used various writing materials, such as stone, metal, clay, palm leaves, birch bark, paper, cloth, etc. Stone was the principal writing material in ancient India, as it was durable and widely available. Metal was used for inscriptions on coins, seals, and plates. Clay was used for making tablets and seals. Palm leaves and birch bark were used for making manuscripts, especially in the medieval period. Paper was introduced in India by the Arabs in the 10th century and became the dominant writing material by the 16th century. Cloth was used for making banners, flags, and scrolls.
 - Writing instruments: India has used various writing instruments, such as chisels, styluses, pens, brushes, etc. Chisels were used for carving inscriptions on stone and metal. Styluses were used for writing on clay, palm leaves, and birch bark. Pens were made of reeds, bamboo, feathers, or metal and were used for writing on paper and cloth. Brushes were used for painting and calligraphy.
 - Writing technologies: India has also developed and adopted various writing technologies, such as printing, typography, lithography, photography, telegraphy, etc. Printing was introduced in India by the Portuguese in the 16th century and was used for producing religious texts, newspapers, and books. Typography was the art of designing and arranging typefaces and fonts. Lithography was a technique of printing from a flat surface treated to repel or attract ink. Photography was a technique of capturing images on light-sensitive materials. Telegraphy was a technique of transmitting messages over long dis-

tances using electric signals.

- Writing media: India has also used various writing media, such as books, newspapers, magazines, posters, films, radio, television, etc. Books were the primary medium of storing and disseminating written texts. Newspapers were periodical publications that reported news and information. Magazines were periodical publications that focused on specific topics or interests. Posters were large printed sheets that displayed messages or images. Films were moving pictures that combined visual and audio elements. Radio was a medium of broadcasting sound signals over the air. Television was a medium of broadcasting visual and audio signals over the air.
 - Writing modes: India has also used various writing modes, such as alphabetic, syllabic, logographic, ideographic, pictographic, etc. Alphabetic writing mode used symbols to represent sounds. Syllabic writing mode used symbols to represent syllables. Logographic writing mode used symbols to represent words. Ideographic writing mode used symbols to represent ideas. Pictographic writing mode used symbols to represent pictures.
 - Writing genres: India has also produced and consumed various writing genres, such as poetry, drama, fiction, non-fiction, biography, autobiography, history, philosophy, religion, science, technology, etc. Poetry was a form of literature that used rhythmic and expressive language. Drama was a form of literature that presented a story through dialogue and action. Fiction was a form of literature that created imaginary characters and events. Non-fiction was a form of literature that presented factual information and analysis. Biography was a form of literature that narrated the life of a person. Autobiography was a form of literature that narrated the life of the author. History was a form of literature that recorded and interpreted the past. Philosophy was a form of literature that explored the nature of reality, knowledge, and values. Religion was a form of literature that expressed the beliefs and practices of a faith. Science was a form of literature that explained the natural phenomena and laws. Technology was a form of literature that described the application of science to practical problems.
- Writing technology in India and ancient India has evolved and adapted to the changing needs and contexts of the people and the society. It has also influenced and been influenced by the culture

Pyrotechnics in India and Ancient India

- Pyrotechnics is the art and science of creating and using fireworks for entertainment, military, or ceremonial purposes.
- Fireworks and pyrotechnic shows existed as a form of royal entertainment in many medieval Indian kingdoms during festivals, events and special

occasions like weddings .

- One of the earliest notes of pyrotechnical shows in India is made by Abdur Razzaq, the ambassador of the Timurid Sultan Shahrukh to the court of the Vijayanagar king Devaraya II in 1443. He wrote that he witnessed “a most wonderful spectacle” of fireworks that lasted for an hour and a half.
- Manufacturing formulas for fireworks describing pyrotechnic mixtures are found within Kautukachintamani, a Sanskrit volume by Gajapati Prataparudradeva (1497-1539), a reputed king of Orissa. He described various types of fireworks such as rockets, fountains, wheels, and crackers .
- Gunpowder, an essential ingredient of fire crackers, was unknown in ancient India. It was introduced by the Arabs and the Mongols in the 13th and 14th centuries. The Indian pyrotechnicians experimented with different proportions and compositions of gunpowder to create various effects and sounds.
- Pyrotechnics in India was not only a source of amusement, but also a symbol of power and prestige. The Mughal emperors, especially Akbar and Jahangir, were fond of fireworks and employed skilled pyrotechnicians to design and display them on occasions such as birthdays, coronations, weddings, and victories.
- Pyrotechnics in India also had a religious and cultural significance. Fireworks were used to celebrate festivals such as Diwali, the festival of lights, and Holi, the festival of colors. Fireworks were also associated with the worship of various deities such as Agni, the god of fire, and Indra, the god of thunder.
- Pyrotechnics in India has evolved over time and has become a popular and widespread form of entertainment and expression. India is one of the largest producers and consumers of fireworks in the world. The city of Sivakasi in Tamil Nadu is known as the fireworks capital of India, producing about 90% of the country’s fireworks.

Trade in Ancient India

- Trade and commerce were important aspects of ancient Indian civilization. India had extensive contacts with other regions through land and sea routes, and exchanged various goods, ideas, and technologies.
- India was known for its production and export of spices, textiles, metals, gems, and other commodities. Some of the main items of trade were pepper, cinnamon, cardamom, turmeric, ginger, cotton, silk, iron, copper, gold, silver, ivory, pearls, coral, and lapis lazuli.
- India’s trade partners included regions such as Mesopotamia, Egypt, Persia, Greece, Rome, China, Southeast Asia, and Africa. Some of the important trade centers in ancient India were Taxila, Ujjain, Pataliputra, Kanchi, Madurai, Broach, Tamralipti, and Muziris.
- India’s trade was facilitated by various means of transport, such as roads,

rivers, canals, and ships. The traders used carts, boats, camels, horses, and elephants to carry their goods. The traders also formed guilds and associations to protect their interests and regulate their activities.

- India's trade was influenced by various factors, such as political stability, taxation, currency, law and order, and cultural exchange. The trade also had an impact on the economy, society, religion, and art of ancient India and its trading partners.

India's Dominance up to Pre-colonial Times and Ancient India

- India is one of the oldest civilizations in the world, dating back to 2500 BC, when the Indus Valley cities were just starting to grow .
- India was home to a rich cultural and religious diversity, with various empires, kingdoms, and dynasties ruling over different regions and periods of time .
- Some of the most notable empires in ancient and medieval India were the Mauryan Empire (321-185 BC), the Gupta Empire (320-550 AD), the Chola Empire (9th-13th century AD), the Delhi Sultanate (1206-1526 AD), and the Mughal Empire (1526-1857 AD) .
- These empires contributed to the development of art, architecture, literature, science, mathematics, astronomy, medicine, religion, philosophy, law, and trade in India and beyond .
- India was also a major hub of commerce and cultural exchange, connecting with other regions of Asia, Africa, and Europe through land and sea routes .
- India's dominance and influence in the pre-colonial era was challenged by the arrival of European powers, especially the British, who gradually established their political and economic control over most of India by the 19th century .
- India's struggle for independence from British colonialism led to the partition of India and Pakistan in 1947, which was accompanied by widespread violence and displacement of millions of people.

Module 5- Cultural Heritage and Performing Arts

- Cultural heritage is the legacy of physical and intangible attributes of a group or society that are inherited from past generations, maintained in the present and bestowed for the benefit of future generations.
- Cultural heritage can be tangible, such as buildings, monuments, landscapes, books, works of art and artefacts, or intangible, such as oral traditions, languages, rituals, values, customs and skills.
- Performing arts are forms of creative expression that are performed in front of an audience, such as music, dance, theatre, opera, circus, puppetry and comedy.

- Performing arts are part of the intangible cultural heritage of many cultures and play a vital role in preserving and transmitting their identity, history and values.
- Performing arts can also be a source of social cohesion, cultural diversity, artistic innovation and intercultural dialogue.
- Some examples of performing arts that are recognized by UNESCO as intangible cultural heritage are:
 - Urtiin Duu, traditional folk long song from Mongolia, which is sung in a wide vocal range and accompanied by a horse-head fiddle.
 - Wayang puppet theatre from Indonesia, which uses intricately carved and painted puppets to narrate stories from Hindu epics and local folklore.
 - Flamenco, an artistic expression fusing song, dance and music from Spain, which reflects the diverse cultures and influences that have shaped the Andalusian region.
 - Kabuki, a classical Japanese theatre form that combines drama, music, dance and elaborate costumes and make-up to portray historical and contemporary stories.
 - Tango, a social dance and musical genre from Argentina and Uruguay, which expresses the identity, feelings and culture of the urban communities of the Rio de la Plata basin.
- To study and appreciate the cultural heritage and performing arts of different regions and peoples, one should:
 - Learn about the historical, social and cultural contexts of their creation and transmission.
 - Respect the diversity and uniqueness of each form and its practitioners and audiences.
 - Recognize the challenges and opportunities of safeguarding, promoting and revitalizing them in the face of globalization, modernization and environmental changes.
 - Engage in critical and creative dialogue with them and explore their potential for contemporary relevance and expression.

: **Source:** <https://www.khanacademy.org/humanities/special-topics-art-history/arches-at-risk-c>
 Source: <https://ich.unesco.org/en/performing-arts-00054>
 Source: <https://www.nature.com/articles/s41599-023-01582-5>

Indian Architecture in Ancient India and present times

- Indian architecture is the expression of the history, culture, and religion of India. It reflects the diversity and richness of the Indian civilization and its interactions with other cultures and traditions.
- Indian architecture can be broadly classified into two main categories: an-

cient and modern. Ancient Indian architecture refers to the architectural styles and traditions that developed in the Indian subcontinent before the advent of colonialism and western influences. Modern Indian architecture refers to the architectural styles and trends that emerged in India after the independence from British rule and the influence of globalisation and modernisation.

- Some of the main features and characteristics of ancient and modern Indian architecture are:
 - Ancient Indian architecture
 - * Ancient Indian architecture was mainly influenced by the religious beliefs and practices of Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, and Islam. These religions shaped the design and construction of various types of buildings, such as temples, stupas, mosques, tombs, palaces, forts, and monuments.
 - * Ancient Indian architecture was also influenced by the geographical and climatic conditions of the region, as well as the availability of local materials and resources. The use of stone, brick, wood, metal, and plaster was common in ancient Indian architecture. The use of arches, domes, pillars, columns, and vaults was also prevalent in ancient Indian architecture.
 - * Ancient Indian architecture was characterized by a high degree of ornamentation and symbolism, as well as a sense of harmony and proportion. The use of geometric patterns, floral motifs, animal figures, and human sculptures was common in ancient Indian architecture. The use of colors, such as red, yellow, blue, green, and white, was also significant in ancient Indian architecture.
 - * Ancient Indian architecture was also influenced by the regional and cultural variations and diversity of the Indian subcontinent. Some of the prominent examples of ancient Indian architecture are the Indus Valley Civilization, the Mauryan Empire, the Gupta Empire, the Pallava Dynasty, the Chola Dynasty, the Hoysala Empire, the Vijayanagara Empire, the Rajput Kingdoms, the Delhi Sultanate, the Mughal Empire, and the Maratha Empire.
 - Modern Indian architecture
 - * Modern Indian architecture was mainly influenced by the political and social changes that occurred in India after the independence from British rule in 1947. The need for nation-building, development, and modernisation led to the emergence of new architectural styles and trends in India. Modern Indian architecture also reflected the influence of western and international architectural movements, such as Art Deco, Bauhaus, Modernism, Postmodernism, and Deconstructivism.
 - * Modern Indian architecture was also influenced by the technological and scientific advancements that enabled the use of new ma-

terials and methods in architecture. The use of concrete, steel, glass, and plastic was common in modern Indian architecture. The use of prefabrication, modularisation, and standardisation was also prevalent in modern Indian architecture.

- * Modern Indian architecture was characterized by a high degree of innovation and experimentation, as well as a sense of functionality and efficiency. The use of geometric forms, abstract shapes, and dynamic structures was common in modern Indian architecture. The use of colors, such as black, white, gray, and silver, was also significant in modern Indian architecture.
- * Modern Indian architecture was also influenced by the regional and cultural diversity and identity of the Indian subcontinent. Some of the prominent examples of modern Indian architecture are the Chandigarh Capitol Complex, the Lotus Temple, the Akshardham Temple, the India Gate, the Parliament House, the Rashtrapati Bhavan, the Taj Mahal Hotel, the Chhatrapati Shivaji Terminus, the Howrah Bridge, the Victoria Memorial, the Gateway of India, and the Marine Drive.

Engineering and Architecture as Cultural Heritage of India

- India has a rich and diverse architectural heritage that reflects its history, culture, and religion.
- Indian architecture can be classified into several styles and traditions, such as Hindu temple architecture, Indo-Islamic architecture, South Indian architecture, and Indo-Saracenic architecture.
- Hindu temple architecture is characterized by the use of stone, brick, or wood to create elaborate structures with towers, domes, halls, and sanctuaries. The temples are often decorated with sculptures, carvings, and paintings depicting gods, goddesses, and mythological scenes. Some examples of Hindu temple architecture are the Khajuraho temples, the Brihadeeswarar temple, and the Konark Sun temple.
- Indo-Islamic architecture is the result of the fusion of Islamic and Indian elements, especially during the Mughal and Rajput periods. It features the use of arches, domes, minarets, and geometric patterns, as well as the incorporation of Hindu motifs, such as lotus, elephants, and peacocks. Some examples of Indo-Islamic architecture are the Taj Mahal, the Red Fort, and the Qutub Minar.
- South Indian architecture is influenced by the Dravidian and Pallava cultures, and is distinguished by the use of granite, sandstone, and soapstone to create massive and ornate temples with pyramidal towers, pillared halls, and sculpted walls. Some examples of South Indian architecture are the Meenakshi Amman temple, the Kailasa temple, and the Mahabalipuram monuments.
- Indo-Saracenic architecture is a hybrid style that combines elements of Indian, Islamic, and Gothic architecture, and was popularized by the British

colonial rulers in the 19th and 20th centuries. It features the use of domes, arches, spires, and stained glass, as well as the incorporation of Indian motifs, such as chhatris, jalis, and chajjas. Some examples of Indo-Saracenic architecture are the Victoria Memorial, the Gateway of India, and the Rashtrapati Bhavan.

- Indian architecture also showcases some engineering marvels, such as the iron pillar of Delhi, which has resisted corrosion for over 1600 years, the stepwells of Gujarat and Rajasthan, which are intricate and functional water storage systems, and the Brihadeeswarar temple, which has the world's largest monolithic granite dome.
- Indian architecture also reflects its multicultural heritage, as it has been influenced by various foreign and indigenous cultures, such as the Greeks, the Persians, the Turks, the Mongols, the Portuguese, the British, the Buddhists, the Jains, the Sikhs, and the Christians. Indian architecture also represents the diversity of beliefs, values, and traditions of the Indian people, and is a source of pride and identity for them.
- Indian architecture is a valuable cultural heritage that needs to be preserved and protected, as it is a testimony of the ancient and medieval civilizations that flourished in India, and a manifestation of the artistic and scientific achievements of the Indian people. Indian architecture also has the potential to inspire and educate the present and future generations, and to promote cultural exchange and dialogue among different communities.

Sculptures as Cultural Heritage of India

- Sculpture is one of the oldest and most diverse forms of artistic expression in India, dating back to the Indus Valley Civilization (c. 2500-1500 BCE) and continuing to the present day.
- Sculpture in India reflects the rich cultural, religious, and historical diversity of the country, as well as the influences of various regions, dynasties, and foreign invaders.
- Sculpture in India can be classified into three broad categories: stone, metal, and terracotta. Each category has its own distinctive features, techniques, and styles.
- Stone sculpture is the most prevalent and enduring form of sculpture in India, especially in temples, caves, and monuments. Stone sculpture ranges from the naturalistic and realistic to the abstract and symbolic, and often depicts deities, saints, animals, and scenes from mythology and epics.
- Metal sculpture is mainly found in the form of bronze and brass icons, statues, and ritual objects. Metal sculpture is characterized by its intricate details, fine craftsmanship, and aesthetic appeal. Metal sculpture reached its zenith during the Chola dynasty (9th-13th century CE) in South India, which produced the famous Nataraja (Lord of Dance) and other masterpieces of Hindu and Buddhist art.
- Terracotta sculpture is the art of shaping clay and baking it in a kiln.

Terracotta sculpture is usually small in size and depicts human and animal figures, toys, and household items. Terracotta sculpture is one of the oldest forms of sculpture in India, and reflects the folk and tribal traditions of various regions and communities.

- Sculpture in India is not only a form of art, but also a medium of communication, education, and devotion. Sculpture in India conveys the values, beliefs, and stories of the Indian people, and serves as a source of inspiration, guidance, and worship for the followers of various faiths. Sculpture in India is a living and dynamic heritage that continues to evolve and adapt to the changing times and contexts.

Seals as Cultural Heritage of India

- Seals are small objects made of stone, metal, or other materials that have a carved or engraved design on one side and are used to stamp or seal documents, containers, or other items.
- Seals have been used in India since ancient times, especially during the Indus Valley Civilization (2500-1900 BCE), which was one of the earliest urban civilizations in the world.
- Seals of the Indus Valley Civilization are mostly square or rectangular in shape, and measure about 2-3 cm on each side. They are made of steatite, a soft stone that can be easily carved, and coated with alkali and baked to make them harder and more durable.
- Seals of the Indus Valley Civilization usually depict an animal, such as a bull, a buffalo, a rhinoceros, an elephant, a tiger, or a unicorn, along with a few symbols or glyphs that are part of the undeciphered Indus script. The animal may represent a deity, a clan, a trade, or a region. The symbols may indicate the owner, the purpose, or the content of the seal.
- Seals of the Indus Valley Civilization were used for various purposes, such as marking goods, sealing containers, identifying traders, authenticating documents, or expressing religious beliefs. They were also worn as amulets or ornaments by the people.
- Seals of the Indus Valley Civilization are important sources of information about the culture, society, economy, religion, and art of the ancient Indus people. They show their skill in carving, their knowledge of animals, their trade networks, and their writing system.
- Seals of the Indus Valley Civilization are also examples of cultural exchange and interaction between India and other regions, such as the Persian Gulf, Mesopotamia, and Central Asia. Seals from these areas have been found in Indus sites, and vice versa, indicating that there was trade and communication between these civilizations.
- Seals of the Indus Valley Civilization are part of the cultural heritage of India, as they reflect the ancient history, diversity, and creativity of the Indian people. They are also valuable artifacts that need to be preserved and studied for future generations.

Coins as Cultural Heritage of India

- Coins are one of the most important sources of information about the history, culture, religion, economy, and politics of ancient and medieval India.
- Coins reflect the artistic skills, technological innovations, political aspirations, and religious beliefs of the people who minted and used them.
- Coins also provide evidence of trade, commerce, and cultural contacts between India and other regions of the world.
- The origin of coinage in India can be traced back to the first millennium BCE, when punch-marked coins made of silver and copper were used as a medium of exchange.
- These coins were called karshapanas or panas, and were issued by various janapadas or republics that existed in northern India.
- The coins had various symbols, such as animals, plants, geometric shapes, and human figures, that represented the identity and authority of the issuing authority.
- The earliest coins were uniface, meaning they had symbols only on one side, but later coins became biface, having symbols on both sides.
- The Mauryan Empire (4th-2nd century BCE) introduced a new type of coinage, called cast copper coins, which were circular in shape and had a standard weight and size.
- These coins had the image of the king or his emblem, such as the lion capital, on one side, and various symbols, such as the peacock, the bull, the elephant, the tree, etc., on the other side.
- The Mauryan coins also had legends or inscriptions in Brahmi or Kharosthi scripts, giving the name and title of the king or his officials.
- The post-Mauryan period (2nd-1st century BCE) saw the emergence of several regional kingdoms and dynasties, such as the Sungas, the Satavahanas, the Indo-Greeks, the Shakas, the Kushanas, etc., who issued their own coins in different metals, such as gold, silver, copper, lead, and potin.
- These coins had various images and legends, reflecting the cultural diversity and syncretism of the period.
- For example, the Indo-Greek coins had the portraits of the kings in Greek style, wearing helmets and diadems, and the legends in Greek and Kharosthi scripts, giving the name and title of the king and his epithets.
- The Kushana coins had the images of the kings in Central Asian or Iranian style, wearing crowns and long coats, and the legends in Greek, Kharosthi, and Brahmi scripts, giving the name and title of the king and his deities.
- The Kushana coins also depicted various gods and goddesses from different religions, such as Buddhism, Hinduism, Zoroastrianism, and Greek mythology, showing the religious tolerance and pluralism of the Kushana rulers.
- The Gupta Empire (4th-6th century CE) is considered as the golden age of Indian coinage, as the coins of this period reached a high level of artistic excellence and sophistication.

- The Gupta coins were mostly made of gold, and had the portraits of the kings in a realistic and elegant manner, wearing elaborate ornaments and garments, and performing various activities, such as hunting, playing musical instruments, offering sacrifices, etc.
- The coins also had legends in Sanskrit and Brahmi scripts, giving the name and title of the king and his genealogy, and sometimes also his achievements and virtues.
- The Gupta coins also depicted various Hindu gods and goddesses, such as Vishnu, Shiva, Lakshmi, Saraswati, etc., showing the revival and patronage of Hinduism by the Gupta rulers.
- The medieval period (7th-12th century CE) witnessed the invasion and establishment of various foreign dynasties and rulers, such as the Arabs, the Turks, the Afghans, the Mongols, etc., who introduced new types of coinage, such as the silver dirham, the gold dinar, the copper jital, etc.
- These coins had the images and legends of the rulers in Arabic or Persian scripts, giving the name and title of the ruler and his religious affiliation, and sometimes also his date and place of minting.
- The coins also had various religious symbols, such as the crescent, the star, the kalima, etc., showing the influence and spread of Islam in India.
- The medieval period also saw the continuation and development of indigenous coinage, such as the gold fanam, the silver tanka, the copper paisa, etc., issued by various Hindu and Jain kingdoms and dyn

Pottery as Cultural Heritage of India

- Pottery is one of the most ancient and enduring forms of artistic expression in India. It has been used for various purposes, such as cooking, storing, serving, religious rituals, and decoration.
- Pottery reflects the cultural diversity and richness of India, as different regions have their own styles, techniques, and motifs. Some of the well-known types of pottery in India are:
 - **Terracotta pottery:** This is the most common and basic form of pottery, made from clay that is baked in a kiln or a pit. Terracotta pottery is usually red, brown, or black in color, and often decorated with geometric patterns, floral designs, or animal figures. Terracotta pottery is found in many parts of India, such as Rajasthan, Gujarat, Uttar Pradesh, West Bengal, and Tamil Nadu.
 - **Glazed pottery:** This is a type of pottery that is coated with a glassy substance, called glaze, that gives it a shiny and colorful appearance. Glazed pottery is usually made from white clay, and can have various colors, such as blue, green, yellow, or white. Glazed pottery is mainly found in Khurja and Rampur in Uttar Pradesh, Srinagar in Kashmir, and Jaipur in Rajasthan.
 - **Blue pottery:** This is a type of glazed pottery that is characterized by its distinctive blue color, derived from cobalt oxide. Blue pottery is also decorated with floral or geometric patterns, and sometimes

with Persian or Mughal influences. Blue pottery is a specialty of Jaipur in Rajasthan, and is also found in Delhi and Agra.

- **Black pottery:** This is a type of pottery that is made from a special clay that turns black when fired in a reduction kiln, where oxygen is reduced. Black pottery is usually polished with oil or vegetable juices, and sometimes embellished with cane or bamboo strips. Black pottery is a unique craft of Nizamabad in Uttar Pradesh, and Longpi in Manipur.
- **Paper mache pottery:** This is a type of pottery that is made from paper pulp, mixed with glue and clay, and molded into various shapes. Paper mache pottery is then painted with bright colors and designs, and sometimes gilded with gold or silver. Paper mache pottery is a popular craft of Kashmir, and is also found in Bihar and Madhya Pradesh.
- Pottery is a living tradition that is still practiced by many artisans and communities in India. Pottery is also a valuable source of information for historians and archaeologists, as it reveals the social, economic, and cultural aspects of different periods and regions. Pottery is a part of India's intangible cultural heritage, and deserves to be preserved and promoted.

Puppetry as Cultural Heritage of India

- Puppetry is an ancient and diverse art form that has been used for entertainment, education, and cultural and religious dissemination in India.
- Puppetry is one of the richest heritages of India, with several regional genres that reflect the local history, folklore, music, and aesthetics .
- Some of the common traits of Indian puppetry are :
 - The use of epics, myths, legends, and folktales as the main sources of stories and themes.
 - The incorporation of music, dance, and dialogue to create a lively and engaging performance.
 - The involvement of the puppeteer as a narrator, singer, actor, and manipulator of the puppets.
 - The adaptation of the puppetry style to suit the available materials, skills, and audience preferences.
- Some of the major types of Indian puppetry are :
 - String puppets, which are controlled by strings attached to various parts of the puppet's body. Examples are kathputli from Rajasthan, gombeyatta from Karnataka, and bommalattam from Tamil Nadu.
 - Shadow puppets, which are flat figures made of leather or paper that are projected on a screen by a light source. Examples are tholu bommalata from Andhra Pradesh, tolupava kuthu from Kerala, and ravanachhaya from Odisha.
 - Rod puppets, which are manipulated by rods attached to the puppet's limbs or head. Examples are putul nautch from West Bengal, yampuri from Bihar, and kundhei from Odisha.

- Glove puppets, which are worn on the puppeteer’s hands and fingers. Examples are pavakoothu from Kerala, chamadyache bahulya from Maharashtra, and gopalila kundhei from Odisha.
- Indian puppetry has faced many challenges in the post-colonial period, such as the loss of patronage, the competition from modern media, and the lack of recognition and support. However, many puppeteers have also innovated and experimented with new forms, themes, and techniques to keep the art form alive and relevant .
- Indian puppetry is a valuable cultural heritage that showcases the diversity, creativity, and resilience of the Indian people. It is also a powerful medium of communication and expression that can educate, entertain, and inspire audiences of all ages and backgrounds .

Dance as Cultural Heritage of India

- Dance is an ancient and celebrated cultural tradition in India that reflects the diversity and richness of its history, religion, and art.
- Dance in India can be classified into two main categories: classical and folk. Classical dances are based on ancient texts and codified rules, while folk dances are spontaneous and regional expressions of the people.
- Classical dances of India are considered to be a form of worship and a way of conveying spiritual and moral values. They have their roots in Hindu musical theatres and temple rituals. The Sangeet Natak Academy recognises eight classical dance forms in India, namely, Bharatanatyam, Kathak, Kuchipudi, Kathakali, Odissi, Mohiniyattam, Manipuri and Satriya.
- Folk dances of India are diverse and vibrant, reflecting the local customs, festivals, and lifestyles of different regions and communities. They are often performed in groups, with colourful costumes and props, and accompanied by folk music and songs. Some of the popular folk dances of India are Dumhal and Rouff of Jammu and Kashmir, Bhangra and Giddha of Punjab, Garba and Dandiya of Gujarat, Bihu of Assam, Chhau of Odisha, Jharkhand and West Bengal, and Ghoomar of Rajasthan.
- Dance in India is not only a cultural heritage, but also a living and evolving art form that adapts to changing times and influences. Dance and song feature heavily in Indian cinema, popularly known as Bollywood, which has a global audience and impact. Many contemporary dancers and choreographers also experiment with fusion of classical, folk, and western styles, creating new forms and expressions of dance in India.

Music as Cultural Heritage of India

- Music is an integral part of the cultural diversity of India. It reflects the rich historical and religious influences that have shaped the country’s identity and values.
- Music of India can be broadly classified into two main traditions: Indian classical music and Indian folk music. Both traditions have regional varia-

tions and subgenres that reflect the local cultures and languages of India.

- Indian classical music is based on the concepts of raga (melodic framework) and tala (rhythmic cycle). It is a highly refined and sophisticated form of music that requires years of training and practice. It is mainly performed as a solo or duet, with accompaniment from instruments such as the sitar, tabla, sarod, flute, etc.
- Indian classical music has two major styles: Carnatic music and Hindustani music. Carnatic music is prevalent in South India and is based on a fixed set of ragas and talas. Hindustani music is prevalent in North India and is influenced by Persian, Arabic, and Islamic music. It allows more improvisation and flexibility in the choice of ragas and talas.
- Indian folk music is more diverse and varied than classical music. It is influenced by the geography, climate, history, and customs of different regions and communities of India. It is usually performed in groups, with vocal and instrumental accompaniment. It is often associated with festivals, rituals, celebrations, and social occasions.
- Some examples of Indian folk music are Bhangra (Punjab), Dandiya (Gujarat), Lavani (Maharashtra), Baul (Bengal), Qawwali (Sufi), Bhajan (devotional), etc. Indian folk music also incorporates elements of popular, pop, and rock music, creating fusion genres that appeal to the modern audience.
- Music of India is a living and evolving cultural heritage that reflects the diversity and unity of the nation. It is a source of inspiration, expression, and enjoyment for millions of people across the world. It is also a medium of communication, education, and social change.

Theatre as Cultural Heritage of India

- Theatre is a composite art form that combines music, dance, drama, and other elements to create a live performance that communicates with the audience.
- Theatre in India has a long and rich history that dates back to the Vedic period, when religious rituals and hymns were performed as a form of worship and entertainment.
- The Natya Shastra, written by Bharat Muni around 500 BC, is the oldest and most authoritative text on theatre art in India. It describes the theory and practice of various aspects of theatre, such as the origin, purpose, structure, genres, styles, techniques, emotions, gestures, costumes, makeup, music, and dance.
- Theatre in India has evolved through three main periods: the classical period, the traditional period, and the modern period. Each period has its own distinctive features and forms of theatre that reflect the social, cultural, and political changes of the times.
- The classical period (from 500 BC to 1000 AD) was marked by the development of Sanskrit theatre, which followed the rules and conventions of the Natya Shastra. Sanskrit theatre was mainly performed in royal courts

and temples, and consisted of two types: Nataka (drama based on epics and legends) and Prakarana (drama based on contemporary themes and characters).

- The traditional period (from 1000 AD to 1800 AD) was marked by the emergence of regional forms of theatre, which were influenced by local languages, cultures, and folk traditions. These forms of theatre were mainly performed in rural areas and public spaces, and consisted of various types, such as Kutiyattam (Sanskrit theatre of Kerala), Yakshagana (dance-drama of Karnataka), Koodiyattam (dance-drama of Tamil Nadu), Bhavai (folk theatre of Gujarat), Nautanki (folk theatre of Uttar Pradesh), Jatra (folk theatre of Bengal), and Tamasha (folk theatre of Maharashtra).
- The modern period (from 1800 AD to present) was marked by the introduction of Western theatre, which was brought by the British colonialists and missionaries. Western theatre influenced the development of Indian theatre in terms of themes, styles, techniques, and forms. Some of the prominent forms of modern Indian theatre are Parsi theatre (a blend of Indian and Western theatre), Indian People's Theatre Association (IPTA) (a progressive theatre movement that addressed social and political issues), and Indian English theatre (theatre performed in English by Indian playwrights and actors).

Drama as Cultural Heritage of India

- Drama is a form of performing arts, where stories are enacted by the utilisation of dialogue, music, gesture, dance, and sound.
- Drama has a long and rich history in India, dating back to the ancient Vedic period, when it was used as a medium of propagation for religion and social reforms .
- The earliest existing form of drama and theatre in India is the Classical Sanskrit Theatre, which was codified by Bharata, the father of Indian drama, in his treatise Natyashastra .
- Classical Sanskrit Theatre was highly sophisticated and refined, with strict rules and conventions for the structure, language, style, and performance of drama.
- Classical Sanskrit Theatre influenced many regional theatre traditions, such as the Kutiyattam of Kerala, the Koodiyattam of Tamil Nadu, the Yakshagana of Karnataka, and the Kathakali of Kerala .
- Drama also flourished in the medieval and modern periods, with the emergence of new genres and forms, such as the Urdu Drama, the Parsi Theatre, the Bengali Theatre, the Marathi Theatre, and the Hindi Theatre.
- Drama in India reflects the diversity and richness of the culture and heritage of the country, as well as the creativity and innovation of the artists and performers.
- Drama in India is a valuable source of knowledge, entertainment, and inspiration for the present and future generations.

Painting as Cultural Heritage of India

- Painting is one of the oldest and most diverse forms of art in India, dating back to prehistoric times.
- Painting reflects the cultural, religious, and political aspects of Indian society, as well as the aesthetic and creative expressions of the artists.
- Painting is also a medium of preserving and transmitting the intangible cultural heritage of India, such as songs, dances, rituals, and stories.
- Some of the major types of Indian paintings are:
 - **Madhubani painting:** A folk art form from Bihar, characterized by intricate patterns, geometric shapes, and symbolic motifs. Madhubani paintings depict themes from Hindu mythology, nature, and social life. They are usually done on paper, cloth, or walls using natural colors and brushes made from bamboo or cotton.
 - **Warli painting:** A tribal art form from Maharashtra, influenced by the ancient cave paintings. Warli paintings use simple lines and dots to create scenes of everyday life, festivals, and ceremonies. They are usually done on mud walls or canvas using white rice paste or acrylic colors.
 - **Mural painting:** A large-scale painting done on walls, ceilings, or other architectural surfaces. Mural paintings are found in temples, palaces, forts, and other public places. They depict religious, historical, or mythological stories, as well as portraits, landscapes, and abstract designs. Some of the famous mural paintings in India are the Ajanta and Ellora caves, the Brihadeshwara temple, and the Shekhawati region.
 - **Miniature painting:** A small-scale painting done on paper, cloth, ivory, or palm leaf. Miniature paintings emerged during the medieval period, influenced by the Persian, Mughal, Rajasthani, and Pahari styles. Miniature paintings depict scenes from epics, court life, nature, and love. They are known for their intricate details, vibrant colors, and delicate brushwork.
 - **Modern painting:** A contemporary painting style that emerged in the 19th and 20th centuries, influenced by the Western, Indian, and global art movements. Modern paintings explore various themes, such as nationalism, social realism, abstraction, expressionism, and surrealism. Some of the prominent modern painters in India are Raja Ravi Varma, Abanindranath Tagore, Nandalal Bose, Amrita Sher-Gil, M.F. Husain, and S.H. Raza.

Martial Arts Traditions of India

- Martial arts are codified systems and traditions of combat practices, which are practised for a variety of reasons – self-defence, competition, physical

health and fitness, entertainment, as well as mental, physical, and spiritual development.

- India has an ancient tradition in diverse martial arts, dating back to the Vedic period and influenced by the geography, culture, and history of the Indian subcontinent.
- Some of the most famous and prominent martial arts in India are :
 - Kalaripayattu: Often known as the ‘Mother Of All Martial Arts’, this 3000-year old art form originating from Kerala, draws inspiration from the raw power, swift movements and sinuous strength of majestic animals – the lion, tiger, elephant, wild boar, snake and crocodile. It involves strikes, kicks, grappling, weaponry, and healing methods.
 - Silambam: A weapon-based martial art from Tamil Nadu, which uses a bamboo staff as the primary weapon, along with other weapons such as swords, daggers, and spears. It also incorporates animal-based movements and acrobatic skills.
 - Gatka: A Sikh martial art that originated in Punjab, which focuses on the use of swords, sticks, and shields. It is also known for its rhythmic and coordinated movements, which resemble a dance.
 - Thang-Ta: A Manipuri martial art that combines sword and spear techniques, as well as unarmed combat. It is also known as Huyen Lallong, which means the art of the sword and the spear. It is a powerful yet gracefully complex technique that reflects the culture and history of Manipur.
 - Kushti: A form of traditional wrestling that originated in the Mughal era, which combines the local sport of Malla Yuddha with the Persian sport of Varzesh-e-Bastani. It involves grappling, throws, locks, and pins, as well as strength and endurance training.
 - Lathi: One of the oldest and simplest armed martial arts in India, which uses a bamboo or wooden stick as the main weapon. It is also regarded as one of the world’s earliest martial arts weapons. It is practised mainly in rural areas, especially in northern India, where it is used for self-defence and social justice.
 - Sqay: A Kashmiri martial art that uses a sword and a shield, as well as kicks and punches. It is also known as the art of the lion, as it imitates the ferocity and agility of the animal. It is a sport as well as a cultural heritage of Kashmir.
 - Mardani Khel: A Marathi martial art that originated in the 17th century, which uses a variety of weapons such as swords, daggers, axes, spears, and whips. It is also known for its acrobatic and gymnastic skills, as well as its use of music and chants. It is a symbol of the bravery and patriotism of the Maratha warriors.

Fairs and Festivals as Cultural Heritage of India

- India is a land of diverse cultures, religions, languages, and traditions. It is also a land of vibrant celebrations, where various fairs and festivals are held throughout the year to mark important occasions, honor deities, commemorate saints, express gratitude, and showcase the rich and colorful heritage of the country .
- Fairs and festivals in India reflect the diversity and unity of the people, as well as their beliefs, values, customs, and lifestyles. They also provide an opportunity for people to interact, exchange, and enjoy with each other, as well as to showcase their arts, crafts, music, dance, and cuisine .
- Some of the most famous fairs and festivals in India are:
 - **Diwali:** The festival of lights, celebrated in October or November, to mark the victory of good over evil and the return of Lord Rama to Ayodhya after defeating Ravana. People light lamps, candles, and firecrackers, decorate their homes, exchange gifts, and worship Goddess Lakshmi, the goddess of wealth and prosperity .
 - **Holi:** The festival of colors, celebrated in March, to mark the arrival of spring and the triumph of love over hatred. People smear each other with colored powder and water, play with water guns and balloons, and enjoy music, dance, and bonfires. The festival also commemorates the legend of Prahlad, a devotee of Lord Vishnu, who was saved from the fire by the Lord in the form of Narsimha .
 - **Pongal:** The harvest festival of South India, celebrated in January, to thank the Sun God, the Earth, and the cattle for a bountiful crop. People cook and offer rice, milk, and jaggery to the Sun God, decorate their homes with rangoli and flowers, and celebrate with various cultural and sports activities, such as bullfighting and boat racing .
 - **Pushkar Mela:** The largest camel fair in the world, held in November, in the holy town of Pushkar in Rajasthan. Thousands of camels, horses, and cattle are brought to the fair for trade, display, and competition. The fair also attracts pilgrims, tourists, and artists, who take part in various religious, cultural, and entertainment events, such as bathing in the sacred lake, visiting the temples, watching folk dances and music, and enjoying the carnival atmosphere .
 - **Goa Carnival:** The most colorful and lively festival of Goa, held in February or March, before the Lent season. The festival is a legacy of the Portuguese rule in Goa, and features a parade of floats, dancers, musicians, and clowns, led by King Momo, the king of the carnival. The festival also includes various cultural and fun activities, such as street plays, concerts, food stalls, and parties .
 - **Kumbh Mela:** The largest religious gathering in the world, held every 12 years, at four different locations in India, namely Haridwar,

Prayagraj, Nashik, and Ujjain. Millions of devotees and ascetics come to the festival to take a dip in the holy river, which is believed to wash away their sins and grant them salvation. The festival also features various spiritual and cultural events, such as rituals, prayers, discourses, and performances .

- These are just some of the examples of the fairs and festivals that showcase the cultural heritage of India. There are many more such events that celebrate the diversity and unity of the country, and provide a glimpse into its rich and vibrant history, culture, and society .

Current developments in Arts and Culture in India

- India is a diverse country with a rich and varied cultural heritage. India has one of the world's largest collections of songs, music, dance, theatre, folk traditions, performing arts, rites and rituals, paintings and writings that are known, as the 'Intangible Cultural Heritage' (ICH) of humanity.
- India has also contributed significantly to the global art scene, especially in the field of contemporary art. Indian artists have been exploring new trends and themes in their paintings, such as social issues, identity, spirituality, abstraction, and experimentation.
- India has also been actively working towards creating a unique cultural identity for its cities, especially in the urban areas. Three Indian cities, Thrissur and Nilambur in Kerala and Warangal in Telangana, have joined the UNESCO Global Network of Learning Cities, which aims to promote lifelong learning and sustainable development.
- India has also been successful in preserving and promoting its cultural heritage, both tangible and intangible. India has 37 world heritage sites, which include monuments, natural sites, and cultural landscapes. India has also nominated the Hoysala Temples, a group of 13th-century temples in Karnataka, for inscription in the World Heritage List.
- India has also been able to recover some of its stolen or lost cultural artefacts, such as the Goat-Headed Yogini Statue, a 10th-century sculpture that was returned by the US after being smuggled out of India. India has also been celebrating its cultural diversity and achievements through various events and festivals, such as the Republic Day Parade, which showcases the cultural and military prowess of the country.
- India's art and culture sector is also facing some challenges and opportunities in the current scenario. Some of the challenges include the impact of the Covid-19 pandemic, the lack of adequate funding and infrastructure, the threat of cultural homogenization, and the need for innovation and adaptation. Some of the opportunities include the potential of digital platforms, the growing global recognition and demand, the scope for collaboration and exchange, and the role of art and culture in social transformation and nation-building.

Indian's Cultural Contribution to the World

India is a country of diverse and rich cultural heritage, with a history that spans thousands of years. India has influenced and been influenced by various civilizations and cultures around the world, and has made significant contributions to various fields of human endeavor. Some of the major contributions of India to the world are:

- **Mathematics:** India is the birthplace of many mathematical concepts and discoveries, such as the decimal system, the concept of zero, algebra, trigonometry, calculus, geometry, and the Fibonacci sequence. India also developed the concept of infinity, negative numbers, fractions, and the binary system. India also invented the numeral system that is widely used today, known as the Hindu-Arabic numerals .
- **Architecture:** India has a rich and diverse architectural heritage, ranging from ancient temples, palaces, forts, and monuments, to modern skyscrapers, bridges, and dams. India is known for its unique styles of architecture, such as the Indo-Islamic, Mughal, Rajput, Dravidian, Buddhist, and Hindu styles. Some of the famous examples of Indian architecture are the Taj Mahal, the Qutub Minar, the Khajuraho temples, the Brihadeeswarar temple, the Konark Sun temple, and the Lotus temple .
- **Textiles:** India is one of the largest producers and exporters of textiles in the world, and has a long and rich tradition of textile art and craft. India is the origin of many types of fabrics, such as cotton, silk, muslin, chintz, calico, and khadi. India is also known for its diverse and colorful patterns, prints, embroideries, and designs, such as the paisley, the bandhani, the ikat, the kalamkari, the kantha, and the batik .
- **Medicine:** India is the home of one of the oldest systems of medicine in the world, known as Ayurveda, which means “the science of life”. Ayurveda is based on the principles of balance, harmony, and natural healing, and uses herbs, minerals, oils, massages, yoga, and meditation to treat various diseases and ailments. India also developed the concepts of surgery, anesthesia, plastic surgery, cataract surgery, and dental surgery, and invented many surgical instruments, such as the scalpel, the forceps, the needle, and the speculum .
- **Language:** India is a multilingual country, with 22 official languages and hundreds of regional languages and dialects. India is also the source of many languages that belong to the Indo-European and the Dravidian language families, which are spoken by billions of people around the world. India also contributed to the development of many scripts, such as the Brahmi, the Devanagari, the Tamil, the Gujarati, and the Bengali scripts. India also has a rich and diverse literature, spanning various genres, such as poetry, drama, epics, novels, and essays .
- **Art:** India has a vibrant and varied artistic tradition, encompassing various forms of visual, performing, and literary arts. India is known for its paintings, sculptures, murals, mosaics, pottery, metalwork, jewelry,

and handicrafts, which reflect the cultural, religious, and historical influences of India. India is also famous for its music, dance, and theatre, which are based on the concepts of raga, tala, and natya, and include various styles, such as the classical, folk, devotional, and modern styles. Some of the examples of Indian art are the Ajanta and Ellora caves, the Ratha sculptures, the Madhubani paintings, the Tanjore paintings, the Bharatanatyam dance, the Kathakali dance, the Carnatic music, and the Hindustani music .

- **Religion:** India is the birthplace of four major religions in the world, namely Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, and Sikhism. India is also the land of many saints, sages, gurus, and philosophers, who have shaped the spiritual and ethical values of millions of people around the world. India is also the destination of many pilgrims, seekers, and tourists, who visit the various holy places, temples, shrines, monasteries, and ashrams in India. India also has

Indian Cinema as a Performing Art in India

- Indian cinema is one of the most popular and influential forms of performing arts in India, as well as in the world.
- Indian cinema encompasses a variety of genres, languages, styles, and themes, reflecting the diversity and richness of Indian culture and society.
- Indian cinema has a long and complex history, dating back to the silent era of the early 20th century, when pioneers like Dadasaheb Phalke, Raja Harishchandra, and Ardeshir Irani made the first feature films in India.
- Indian cinema has evolved through various phases and movements, such as the Golden Age of Hindi cinema in the 1950s and 1960s, the Parallel Cinema movement of the 1970s and 1980s, the New Wave of Indian cinema in the 1990s and 2000s, and the contemporary multiplex and digital era of the 21st century.
- Indian cinema has produced some of the most acclaimed and influential filmmakers, actors, writers, composers, and technicians in the world, such as Satyajit Ray, Raj Kapoor, Guru Dutt, Bimal Roy, Ritwik Ghatak, Shyam Benegal, Adoor Gopalakrishnan, Mrinal Sen, Amitabh Bachchan, Naseeruddin Shah, Shabana Azmi, A.R. Rahman, Aamir Khan, Rajkumar Hirani, Anurag Kashyap, and many more.
- Indian cinema has also been a source of inspiration and influence for other forms of performing arts in India, such as theatre, dance, music, and literature, as well as for other regional and global cinemas, such as Hollywood, Bollywood, and world cinema.
- Indian cinema has also been a medium of social and cultural expression, commentary, and critique, addressing various issues and themes, such as nationalism, identity, gender, caste, class, religion, violence, poverty, development, globalization, and more.
- Indian cinema has also been a site of contestation and controversy, facing various challenges and criticisms, such as censorship, piracy, plagiarism,

nepotism, stereotyping, representation, and more.

- Indian cinema has also been a subject of academic and popular interest, generating various forms of scholarship, criticism, appreciation, and fandom, both within and outside India.